

Performance and Robustness Benchmarking of Battery SOC Estimation Methods for Embedded Applications

Florian Rzepka^{a,*}, Qinnan Chen^a, Julia Kowal^a

^a*Technical University of Berlin, Chair of Electrical Energy Storage
Technology, Einsteinufer 11, Berlin, 10587, Germany*

Abstract

Robustness under disturbed sensing and signal-integrity faults is central to battery State-of-Charge (SOC) estimation. This study benchmarks four representative SOC-estimation approaches under one causal and cell-disjoint protocol: a direct-measurement model (DM) implemented as fixed-capacity Coulomb counting, a hybrid direct-measurement model (HDM) combining Coulomb counting with data-driven SOH adaptation, a hybrid equivalent-circuit model (HECM) based on a second-order RC observer, and a data-driven neural model (DD) implemented as a recurrent estimator. LFP aging trajectories cover multiple load, thermal, and SOH conditions. The evaluation comprises two complementary branches. The hardware performance benchmark verifies numerical equivalence between the software and microcontroller implementations and measures inference latency, flash occupancy, and peak runtime RAM. The robustness benchmark characterizes estimator behavior in three dimensions. Accuracy quantifies agreement with the reference SOC under nominal input conditions. Robustness quantifies the stability of the SOC estimate and its resistance to error growth when measurements are corrupted or unavailable. Recovery quantifies how rapidly a reliable SOC estimate is re-established after a defined initialization mismatch. Nominal cell-macro MAE is 0.0690 for DM, 0.0412 for HDM,

*Corresponding author.

Email addresses: florian.rzepka@tu-berlin.de (Florian Rzepka),
qinnan.chen@campus.tu-berlin.de (Qinnan Chen), julia.kowal@tu-berlin.de (Julia Kowal)

0.0337 for HECM, and 0.0258 for DD. The DD representative achieves the lowest nominal error and leads several disturbance cases, whereas HECM provides the strongest observed recovery profile. Individual scenarios therefore produce different model rankings. On the STM32H753, all four isolated SOC implementations reproduce their software references, remain within the available memory, and execute within the one-second sampling interval. Their latency and memory requirements differ substantially, demonstrating that deployment cost must be considered alongside estimation quality. The results show that nominal accuracy alone provides an incomplete basis for model selection and must be complemented by robustness, recovery, and embedded feasibility.

Keywords: Battery management system, State of charge, Robustness benchmark, Fault tolerance, Equivalent circuit model, Recurrent neural network, Embedded implementation, Microcontroller

1 Nomenclature

2 *Acronyms*

3	BMS	Battery management system
4	SOC	State of charge
5	SOH	State of health
6	DM	Direct-measurement model
7	HDM	Hybrid direct-measurement model
8	HECM	Hybrid equivalent-circuit model
9	DD	Data-driven neural model
10	ECM	Equivalent circuit model
11	EKF	Extended Kalman filter
12	MAE	Mean absolute error
13	RMSE	Root-mean-square error
14	ADC	Analog-to-digital converter
15	CV	Constant-voltage phase

16	OCV	Open-circuit voltage
17	GRU	Gated recurrent unit
18	LSTM	Long short-term memory
19	LFP	Lithium iron phosphate
20	<i>Symbols</i>	
21	t	Time
22	$I(t)$	Current signal at time t
23	$U(t)$	Voltage signal at time t
24	$T(t)$	Temperature signal at time t
25	$\widehat{\text{SOC}}(t)$	Estimated state of charge at time t
26	$\widehat{\text{SOH}}(t)$	Estimated state of health at time t
27	$\text{SOC}_{\text{ref}}(t)$	Dataset SOC ground truth at time t
28	$\text{SOH}_{\text{ref}}(t)$	Reference SOH target at time t
29	g_I	Multiplicative current-gain error
30	ΔI	Additive current offset
31	ΔU	Additive voltage offset
32	ΔT	Additive temperature offset
33	σ_I	Standard deviation of injected current noise
34	σ_U	Standard deviation of injected voltage noise
35	σ_T	Standard deviation of injected temperature noise
36	Q_c	Online cumulative charge state used by the SOC models
37	C_{nom}	Nominal capacity
38	C_{eff}	Effective capacity used inside the estimator
39	U_{max}	Upper voltage threshold used for full-charge detection
40	U_{tol}	Voltage tolerance used in the full-charge condition
41	U_1, U_2	Polarization voltages of the first and second RC branch
42	ΔMAE	Error increase relative to baseline

43 1. Introduction

44 1.1. Motivation and practical relevance

45 Reliable battery state estimation is a core BMS function because SOC and
46 SOH determine safety margins, usable energy, operating limits, charge control, and degradation-aware system management in both mobile and stationary
47 lithium-ion battery applications [1, 2, 3]. Practical deployment quality is not
48 defined by clean-condition accuracy alone, because real BMS operation is exposed to sensor gain and offset errors, additive noise, initialization uncertainty
49 after restart, missing samples, irregular sampling, communication interruptions, and transient signal spikes caused by measurement-chain limitations or disturbances in the surrounding system [4, 5, 6]. The relevant engineering question
50 is therefore not only whether an estimator achieves low MAE under nominal measurements, but also whether it converges back to a reliable state after disturbed initialization and whether it remains stable under physically plausible
51 measurement corruption.

52 As summarized conceptually in Figure 1, the present benchmark treats
53 deployment-facing estimator quality as a three-dimensional problem consisting
54 of nominal accuracy, recovery after state inconsistency, and robustness against
55 disturbed measurements and signal-integrity faults, embedded within broader
56 constraints on memory and execution time. The central question is how four
57 structurally different SOC-estimation classes, represented by the implementations studied here, respond to common failure mechanisms and microcontroller
58 constraints, and whether their nominal ranking remains informative under those
59 conditions. This distinction is essential because one implementation can be accurate under clean measurements yet difficult to re-anchor, sensitive to a specific
60 input fault, or too costly under its trained inference semantics.

69 1.2. State of the art in battery state estimation

70 The literature commonly groups battery-state estimators into direct-measurement
71 or integration-based approaches, model-based approaches based on equivalent-circuit or electrochemical models, hybrid approaches that combine physical
72

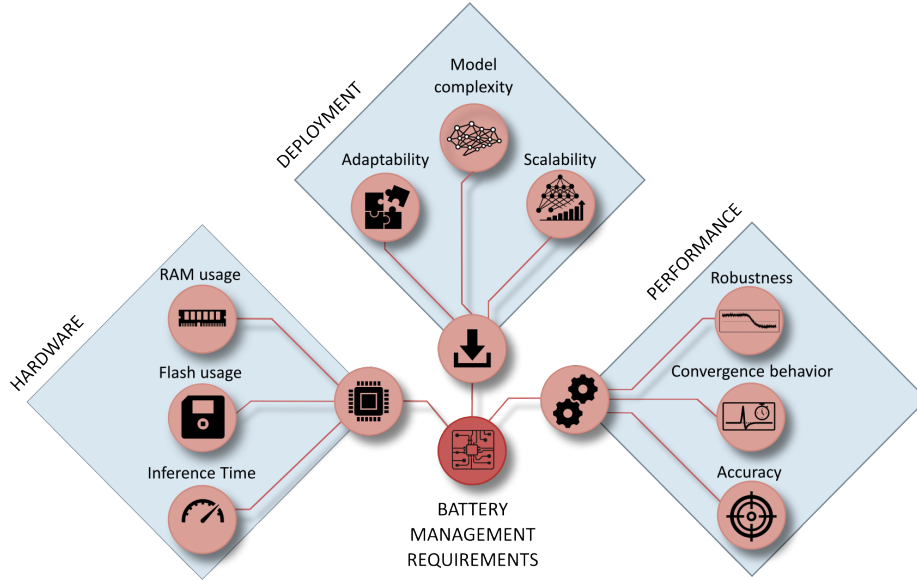


Figure 1: Conceptual overview of deployment-oriented requirements for embedded BMS state estimation. The broader requirement space includes implementation effort, hardware constraints, and estimator performance, whereas the present study focuses on the performance branch and evaluates baseline accuracy, convergence behavior, and robustness under measurement disturbances.

73 structure with learned components, and purely data-driven models based on
74 neural sequence learning [7, 1, 2, 3]. Direct-measurement approaches, typically
75 based on Coulomb counting, are attractive because they are simple, compu-
76 tationally inexpensive, and easy to deploy. However, they remain structurally
77 sensitive to current-gain error, missing data, and initialization errors because
78 they lack an internal correction mechanism [7, 4]. Model-based approaches,
79 especially ECM- and observer-based estimators, offer physical interpretability
80 and voltage-based correction capability, but their practical behavior depends
81 strongly on the quality of model parametrization, operating-point observability,
82 and measurement quality [8, 2, 4].

83 Hybrid estimators seek to combine physical state propagation with learned
84 adaptation of capacity, parameters, or auxiliary states, which has made joint
85 SOC/SOH estimation an active research direction [9, 10, 11]. This combination

can improve baseline calibration, while it does not necessarily eliminate structural sensitivity to measurement disturbances. Data-driven approaches based on recurrent or sequence models can exploit nonlinear cross-relations between current, voltage, temperature, and derived online features, and recent work has also demonstrated their embedded feasibility through TinyML-oriented implementations, pruning, and quantization [12, 13, 14, 15, 3].

1.3. Performance and embedded deployment gap

A large share of the SOC estimation literature still emphasizes clean-data accuracy, average error metrics, or computational efficiency, while comparatively fewer studies analyze how estimators behave under realistic measurement faults and timing corruption [1, 13, 14, 15]. Existing robustness studies often remain confined to a single model family, for example observer-based robustness against modeling and measurement errors [4] or robust estimation concepts for specific BMS architectures under noise and uncertainty [5], whereas cross-family comparisons under the same disturbance protocol and under comparable embedded constraints remain limited. Benchmarking studies in the broader BMS context underline the importance of reproducible scenario design and deployment-relevant validation, but they do not by themselves close the gap between clean-data estimator comparison and measurement-level performance benchmarking across fundamentally different estimator classes [6]. This gap is especially relevant in embedded BMS design, where estimator selection must jointly consider nominal accuracy, convergence, robustness under disturbed measurements, and computational constraints.

1.4. Contribution and study objectives

This work addresses the gap through three linked questions: whether clean-data accuracy predicts performance under measurement and signal-integrity disturbances, which structural mechanisms govern degradation and recovery, and how the resulting behavior trades against embedded execution cost. To answer them, four deployment-oriented representatives are executed under one

causal protocol on cell-disjoint LFP aging data covering multiple load and SOH states. The campaign combines physically interpretable measurement, timing, availability, quantization, and initialization disturbances with a common recovery criterion, cell-level uncertainty analysis, a paired SOH-input ablation, and STM32 measurements of the isolated SOC cores.

The four evaluated implementations provide distinct update and correction mechanisms whose behavior can be traced across the same disturbances, recovery criterion, and hardware measurements. The resulting comparison links estimator selection to the fault profile and resource constraints of the target BMS application.

2. Methodology

2.1. Estimator representatives and class boundaries

Figure 2 summarizes the causal benchmark chain, from measured signals and online feature reconstruction to disturbance injection and global and local evaluation. The four estimators were selected because their dominant SOC update and correction mechanisms differ. Table 1 relates these mechanisms to the broader design space and specifies the implementation evaluated for each class. Learned corrections, higher-order dynamics, richer sensing, and more complex sequence architectures extend these class envelopes while also changing deployment cost.

Table 1: Estimator-class envelope and implementation scope. Literature in the second column supports the defining mechanisms and broader capability ranges, while the last column specifies the representative evaluated in this study.

Class	Defining mechanism and broader capability range	Representative used in this study
Direct measurement	Causal integration of measured current using an assumed capacity. Extensions can include coulombic efficiency, capacity adaptation, OCV or end-point anchoring, plausibility logic, and reset thresholds [7, 13].	Fixed-capacity Coulomb counting with a sustained full-charge CV reset and no voltage-residual correction
Hybrid direct measurement	Integration core augmented by an estimated or learned state or parameter. Extensions can include learned capacity or efficiency, residual correction, multi-sensor fusion, and adaptive anchoring [10, 11].	Same Coulomb-counting and reset logic as DM, with effective capacity supplied by the shared causal LSTM-SOH estimate
ECM observer	Coulomb-counted SOC propagation combined with a voltage model and feedback correction. Extensions can include higher RC order, hysteresis, thermal states, operating-point maps, and different nonlinear observers [7, 4, 2].	Second-order RC model with EKF correction, charge/discharge SOC-SOH lookup surfaces, and shared causal SOH input

Table 1: Estimator-class envelope and implementation scope (continued).

Class	Defining mechanism and broader capability range	Representative used in this study
Data driven	Learned mapping from measured signals or their history to SOC. Implementations can use feed-forward, convolutional, recurrent, attention-based, physics-informed, raw-signal, or engineered-feature models [12, 15, 13].	Structurally pruned rolling-window GRU using voltage, current, temperature, SOH, Q_c , derivatives, and Δt

135 All SOH-dependent representatives, namely HDM, HECM, and DD, receive
 136 the same causal LSTM-SOH trace so that differences arise from how the SOC
 137 branch consumes that context. DM is the low-complexity integration reference.
 138 HDM isolates the effect of learned capacity adaptation without adding volt-
 139 age feedback. HECM adds model-based voltage-residual correction to current-
 140 driven state propagation. DD represents compact temporal learning. The GRU
 141 was selected because SOC and disturbance recovery depend on recent signal his-
 142 tory while its gated single-state structure is lighter than a comparable LSTM.
 143 Because DD also consumes the engineered Q_c feature, it is a data-driven se-
 144 quence estimator with physics-informed inputs rather than a raw-signal-only
 145 neural model.

146 2.2. SOC estimation methods

147 Direct-measurement model (DM)

148 The direct-measurement SOC formulation used in DM, HDM, and as an
 149 explicit auxiliary feature in DD follows the same online cumulative-charge state,
 150 denoted here uniformly as Q_c . It is updated causally from the measured current
 151 stream as

$$Q_c(k) = Q_c(k-1) + \frac{I_k \Delta t_k}{3600 \text{ s h}^{-1}}, \quad (1)$$

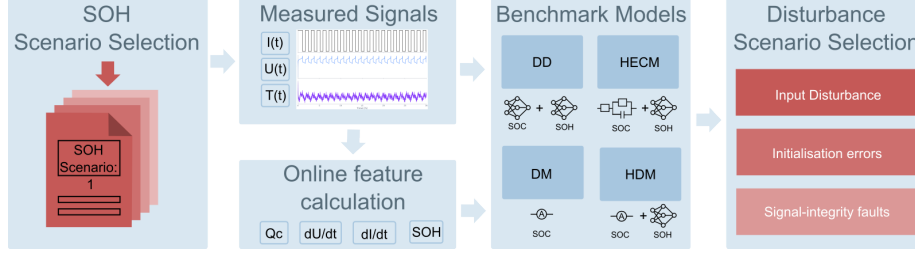


Figure 2: Methodology overview for the causal benchmark chain. Measured battery signals are converted into online auxiliary features, processed by representative estimator implementations, exposed to measurement and initialization interventions, and finally evaluated through global and local performance metrics.

where I_k is given in ampere and Δt_k in seconds, so that the factor 3600 s h^{-1} converts the increment to ampere-hours. The sign convention is fixed by the benchmark implementation and the state is reset to $Q_c = 0$ after a sustained constant-voltage full-charge event. In the DM, this same charge state is mapped directly to SOC through the fixed nominal capacity

$$\widehat{\text{SOC}}_{\text{DM}}(k) = \text{clip}\left(1 + \frac{Q_c(k)}{C_{\text{nom}}}, 0, 1\right). \quad (2)$$

Hybrid direct-measurement model (HDM)

The HDM preserves exactly the same Coulomb-counting core and differs only in the capacity term. The SOH estimate rescales the usable capacity as

$$C_{\text{eff}}(k) = C_{\text{nom}} \cdot \widehat{\text{SOH}}(k), \quad (3)$$

which yields

$$\widehat{\text{SOC}}_{\text{HDM}}(k) = \text{clip}\left(1 + \frac{Q_c(k)}{C_{\text{eff}}(k)}, 0, 1\right). \quad (4)$$

This formulation makes the relation between DM and HDM explicit: both use the same online charge state Q_c , while only the denominator changes through online SOH support. In both direct-measurement variants, a sustained near-maximum voltage condition is interpreted as a constant-voltage full-charge event. If the voltage remains above $U_{\text{max}} - U_{\text{tol}}$, where U_{tol} denotes the admissible voltage margin below the upper threshold U_{max} , for the configured CV duration,

the internal charge state is reset so that $Q_c = 0$ and therefore $\widehat{\text{SOC}} = 1$. This reflects the practical assumption that a completed CV phase provides a physically anchored full-charge reference.

Hybrid equivalent-circuit model (HECM)

The hybrid ECM model is implemented as a second-order RC model with the state vector

$$\mathbf{x}_k = \begin{bmatrix} \widehat{\text{SOC}}_k & U_{1,k} & U_{2,k} \end{bmatrix}^\top, \quad (5)$$

where U_1 and U_2 denote the polarization voltages of the two RC branches. The prediction step propagates the state according to

$$\mathbf{x}_k^- = \mathbf{A}_k \mathbf{x}_{k-1} + \mathbf{b}_k I_{k-1}, \quad (6)$$

with

$$\mathbf{A}_k = \text{diag}\left(1, e^{-\Delta t_k/\tau_1}, e^{-\Delta t_k/\tau_2}\right), \quad \mathbf{b}_k = \begin{bmatrix} \eta \Delta t_k / C_b \\ R_1(1 - e^{-\Delta t_k/\tau_1}) \\ R_2(1 - e^{-\Delta t_k/\tau_2}) \end{bmatrix}, \quad (7)$$

where $C_b = C_0 \widehat{\text{SOH}}$ is the SOH-scaled available capacity. The corrected terminal-voltage estimate is written as

$$\widehat{U}_k = \text{OCV}(\widehat{\text{SOC}}_k, \widehat{\text{SOH}}_k, I_k) + U_{1,k} + U_{2,k} + R_i I_k, \quad (8)$$

and the Kalman update uses the residual between $\widehat{U}_k$ and the measured terminal voltage to correct the internal state. In the present implementation, the state propagation is driven by the previous current sample I_{k-1} , whereas the measurement equation uses the current sample I_k available at the correction step. The ECM parameters are not constant. The implementation interpolates R_i , R_1 , R_2 , τ_1 , τ_2 , OCV, and dOCV/dSOC from a preidentified lookup table over SOC and SOH, with separate charge and discharge parameter surfaces. The HECM is implemented as a two-RC observer with SOH-dependent parameter scheduling.

2.2. Data-driven SOC model (DD)

The data-driven SOC model is a GRU-based recurrent estimator with the feature vector $\{U \text{ [V]}, I \text{ [A]}, T \text{ [}^\circ\text{C]}, \text{SOH}, Q_c, dU/dt, dI/dt, \Delta t\}$. The benchmarked, structurally pruned and fine-tuned model consists of a single-layer GRU with hidden size 67 followed by an MLP head with one hidden layer of size 96 and a sigmoid output layer. During optimization, the recurrent core is exposed to causal sequence segments of length $L_{\text{SOC}} = 2024$ samples. Within this feature set, Q_c is exactly the same online cumulative-charge state defined in (1). It is included explicitly so that the neural estimator receives the same charge-throughput information that also drives DM and HDM. The derivative channels are computed online as the finite differences $dI/dt(k) = (I_k - I_{k-1})/\Delta t_k$ and $dU/dt(k) = (U_k - U_{k-1})/\Delta t_k$. They provide local transient information that is not captured by the absolute channels alone. The additional feature Δt_k allows the network to distinguish amplitude changes from sampling-interval changes under irregular timing. During the primary benchmark, each output is calculated from the latest causal 2024-sample window and recurrent state is reset between windows, matching training and validation. This configuration uses measured and causally reconstructed inputs up to the current sample. The hardware analysis additionally evaluates continuous hidden-state forwarding as a deployment variant and reports its accuracy and resource demand separately.

2.3. SOH estimation method

The shared SOH estimator is an LSTM-based sequence-to-sequence model that operates on hourly aggregated online features derived from $\{U \text{ [V]}, I \text{ [A]}, T \text{ [}^\circ\text{C]}, \text{EFC}, Q_c\}$, where the aggregation uses the statistics mean, standard deviation, minimum, and maximum for each feature [16, 17, 18, 19]. This transforms the five base channels into a 20-dimensional hourly feature vector. Architecturally, the SOH network first projects the aggregated input through a two-layer feature embedding block with size 128, layer normalization, GELU activations, and dropout, then processes the sequence with a two-layer unidirectional LSTM of hidden size 112, and finally maps the recurrent output through

three residual MLP blocks and a prediction head with hidden size 160 to obtain the SOH estimate for each hourly step.

During optimization, the SOH estimator is exposed to causal hourly sequence segments, and benchmark execution processes one hourly aggregate at a time with causal hidden- and cell-state forwarding. This allows the estimator to accumulate degradation context without access to future information. The first hourly output is anchored with the configured initial SOH value before subsequent hourly predictions are taken directly from the recurrent model output. The SOH prediction is updated at hourly cadence and held piecewise constant between update points. This online update structure matches the gradually evolving capacity fade in the dataset and supplies the latest SOH context to the faster SOC estimators. In the HDM, the predicted SOH enters the SOC computation through the effective capacity relation $C_{\text{eff}} = C_{\text{nom}} \cdot \widehat{\text{SOH}}$, so the method remains structurally close to direct measurement while replacing the fixed-capacity assumption. In the HECM, the predicted SOH affects the capacity scaling and the lookup-based ECM parametrization, while in the DD model it is provided as an explicit SOC input feature that contextualizes the current measurement trajectory.

2.4. Model and target-hardware preparation

The software benchmark uses trained floating-point model parameters and input scalers fixed before evaluation on the independent holdout test set. Neural training, hyperparameter selection, scaler fitting, pruning, and model selection use the declared training and validation sets. The HPPC-derived HECM lookup surfaces were identified from the same model-development sets and fixed without retuning before benchmark evaluation. Figure A.25 and Table A.4 document the complete cell-disjoint split. The compact SOC-GRU has hidden size 67 and the shared SOH-LSTM has hidden size 112. The continuous high-load test trajectory in Figure 6 is analyzed separately as a mechanism-focused lifecycle diagnostic.

The target-hardware experiment evaluates the isolated SOC cores on a NUCLEO-

247 H753ZI board with a 480 MHz STM32H753 Cortex-M7. To separate SOC imple-
 248 mentation cost from the shared SOH service, the board receives the precomputed
 249 causal SOH trace used by the software reference. The SOH-LSTM itself is not
 250 executed on the microcontroller. Numerical equivalence and inference latency
 251 are measured directly on the board. Execution time is recorded for every valid
 252 inference with the processor-integrated hardware cycle counter, and each cell
 253 sequence is replayed three times. Flash occupancy is calculated from the com-
 254 piled firmware regions that must be stored in the microcontroller’s non-volatile
 255 program memory.

256 Peak runtime RAM combines statically allocated variable storage, maximum
 257 dynamic-memory allocation, and maximum temporary call-stack demand. The
 258 static contribution is obtained from the compiled firmware, while dynamic allo-
 259 cation is monitored during execution. Stack demand is measured with a high-
 260 water-mark pattern during representative on-device replays that exercise the
 261 complete estimator path. For DD, this includes valid inference after its rolling
 262 input window has been filled. An unused compilation-time memory reserve is
 263 excluded from the reported demand. Predictions are compared with both the
 264 software implementation and dataset SOC. Figure 19 summarizes the resulting
 265 memory requirements of the isolated SOC implementations with SOH supplied
 266 as an external causal trace.

267 2.5. Robustness benchmark design

268 The primary cross-model benchmark manipulates current, voltage, tempera-
 269 ture, sample availability, and sampling time, all of which are measured or recon-
 270 structed online by a BMS. A separate initialization branch acts on deployment-
 271 accessible estimator states. Parameter mismatch is excluded from this common
 272 ranking and examined through the supplementary HECM analysis defined in
 273 Section 2.7. Figure 3 groups the primary scenarios into input disturbances,
 274 initialization errors, and signal-integrity faults, while Table 2 defines their im-
 275 plementation [6].

276 The disturbance magnitudes follow three practical levels of justification:

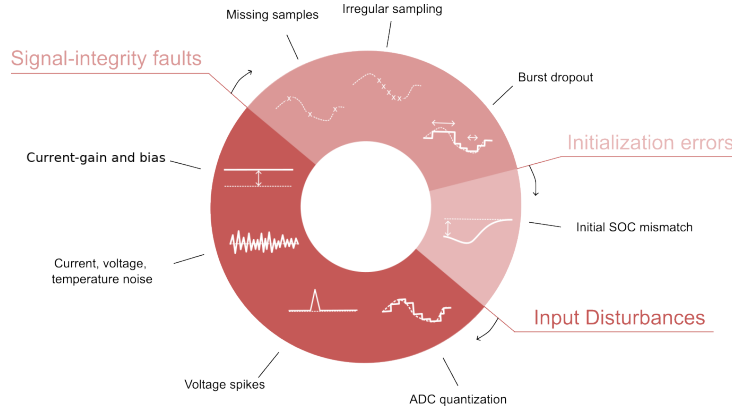


Figure 3: Taxonomy of the disturbance scenarios used in the performance benchmark, grouped into input disturbances, initialization errors, and signal-integrity faults.

277 deployment-level sensing limits, adverse measurement corruption, and signal-
 278 integrity stress conditions [20, 21, 22, 23, 24, 25]. Measurement disturbances
 279 are separated by mechanism. Random sensor noise represents zero-mean fluc-
 280 tuations in current, voltage, and temperature. Systematic sensor errors com-
 281 prise multiplicative current-gain error and additive offsets in current, voltage,
 282 and temperature. Voltage spikes and ADC quantization complete the input-
 283 disturbance branch. The remaining scenarios address estimator initialization,
 284 sample availability, and sampling-time integrity. Together they form a con-
 285 trolled and reproducible benchmark matrix for exposing estimator-specific fail-
 286 ure mechanisms under a common protocol.

Table 2: Disturbance configurations used in the benchmark and their practical rationale. Exact numeric values are fixed benchmark settings. The cited sources motivate disturbance type and magnitude range.

Scenario	Benchmark setup	Practical origin / rationale
ADC quantization	$\Delta I = 0.01$ A, $\Delta U = 0.005$ V, and $\Delta T = 0.5$ °C	ADC steps, sensor scaling, rounding, and coarse deployment-level discretization [20, 21, 26]

Table 2: Disturbance configurations used in the benchmark and practical rationale (continued).

Scenario	Benchmark setup	Practical origin / rationale
Current gain error	$I_{\text{meas}} = I(1 + g_I)$ with $g_I = \pm 0.5\%$, $\pm 1.5\%$, and $\pm 3.0\%$. Both signs are evaluated at each magnitude	Sensor sensitivity error, scale-factor miscalibration, drift, and upper bound as stress case [21, 22, 23]
Current noise	Gaussian with $\sigma_I = 0.02$ A and 0.10 A	Sensing-chain noise, EMI pickup, and low and high sensor-noise levels [4, 5]
Voltage noise	Gaussian with $\sigma_U = 0.01$ V	Wiring noise, front-end noise, poor filtering, and EMI [4, 20, 24]
Temperature noise	Gaussian with $\sigma_T = 1.0$ °C	Sensor tolerance, conversion noise, thermal gradients, and sensor-to-cell mismatch [26, 11]
Current offset	Additive $I_{\text{meas}} = I + \Delta I$ with $\Delta I = \pm 0.05$ A. Both signs are evaluated	Zero-current calibration residual and systematic current-sensor offset [21, 22, 23]
Voltage offset	Additive $U_{\text{meas}} = U + 0.02$ V	Front-end offset, calibration residual, wiring contribution, and adverse sensing stress
Temperature offset	Additive $T_{\text{meas}} = T + 3$ °C	Sensor placement error, calibration residual, and cell-to-sensor thermal mismatch
Initial SOC error	Initial mismatch of -0.10 SOC, with DD perturbed through online Q_c	Restart, storage, missing recent history, and weak LFP OCV anchoring [4, 8]
Missing samples	Every 50th sample frozen and separate random 2% loss	Packet loss, blocked updates, logger dropouts, and periodic and random data freeze [5, 25]
Irregular sampling	Uniform jitter: ± 0.1 s, ± 0.5 s, and ± 0.9 s around nominal 1 s grid	Scheduling jitter, bus latency, and asynchronous acquisition [6, 5, 25]

Table 2: Disturbance configurations used in the benchmark and practical rationale (continued).

Scenario	Benchmark setup	Practical origin / rationale
Burst dropout	One frozen 3600 s interval selected by maximum absolute net charge, with at least 12 h before and 24 h after the interval	Communication interruption, frozen task, stuck data stream, and measurement-only severe case [6, 5]
Voltage spikes	Single-sample spikes of ± 0.20 V every 1000 samples (1000 s)	EMI, switching disturbance, and corrupted voltage samples [24]

2.6. Metrics and evaluation criteria

For deployment-oriented interpretation, the benchmark results are synthesized along three performance dimensions: nominal accuracy under baseline conditions, recovery after initialization mismatch, and robustness under sustained or transient measurement corruption and signal unavailability. Disturbance-related global performance is quantified through MAE, RMSE, bias, maximum error, and the 95th percentile absolute error, because these metrics provide a compact view of average performance, systematic deviation, and tail behavior across the selected evaluation windows. Local disturbance performance is analyzed through scenario-specific metrics such as jump counts, output variance, absolute-error variance, and excess rolling MAE, because several disturbances do not primarily manifest as window-wide MAE collapse but as short-term output fluctuations, delayed drift, or slow re-synchronization. Whenever a disturbance mask exists, the analysis further separates pre-disturbance, disturbed, and post-disturbance behavior in order to quantify disturbance-window error growth and residual post-disturbance error.

ADC quantization, current-gain error, additive sensor offsets, voltage and temperature noise, missing samples, and irregular sampling are interpreted primarily through global metrics. Burst dropout, voltage spikes, current-noise

306 detail, and initialization mismatch additionally use dedicated local evidence
 307 because their most relevant effects are episodic. The canonical initialization-
 308 recovery analysis compares each perturbed estimator trajectory with its cell-,
 309 window-, model-, SOH-, and seed-matched correctly initialized trajectory. The
 310 resulting paired trajectory difference is the recovery signal, while absolute error
 311 against dataset SOC remains the accuracy measure. A first qualifying entry
 312 occurs when the paired difference enters a 0.02 SOC band for at least 300 s.
 313 Persistent recovery is the first subsequent point after which the difference re-
 314 mains within this band for the rest of the 24-h observation horizon. Runs
 315 without this endpoint are right-censored. First-entry time, later departure from
 316 the band, censored and relapse fractions, and excess-error area under the curve
 317 provide complementary recovery diagnostics. The protocol maps a -0.10 SOC-
 318 equivalent mismatch into the coulomb-counting SOC initialization for DM and
 319 HDM, the EKF SOC state for HECM, and the capacity-equivalent Q_c offset
 320 for DD. Because DD first requires a causal input context, recovery is evaluated
 321 for every estimator from the first time at which all four provide a valid output.
 322 Recovery times remain referenced to the original intervention. Endpoints al-
 323 ready satisfied at the common evaluation start are treated as left-censored and
 324 recorded as conservative upper bounds. The comparison therefore measures
 325 observable re-anchoring after deployment-accessible, estimator-specific initial-
 326 ization interventions.

327 Each holdout cell is treated as one independent statistical unit. Protocol-
 328 defined SOH windows and random seeds are first summarized within each cell,
 329 after which the six cells receive equal macro weight. Hierarchical bootstrap
 330 resampling with seeds nested inside cells and 10,000 repetitions provides 95%
 331 confidence intervals. Scenario effects are evaluated as paired, cell-matched dif-
 332 ferences from baseline, and estimator pairs are compared using exact two-sided
 333 sign-flip tests, raw mean and median differences, paired standardized effect sizes,
 334 and Holm-adjusted p -values. Holm correction is applied within each reported
 335 scenario family. With six independent cells, effect magnitudes and confidence
 336 intervals provide the primary evidence and p -values support their interpretation.

337 The full machine-readable tests accompany the result tables, while the baseline
338 pair tests are reproduced in the Appendix.

339 To ensure like-for-like comparisons, all global accuracy, robustness, stratified,
340 confidence-interval, and paired-test calculations begin when the rolling DD first
341 provides a valid estimate. The resulting common evaluation mask gives every
342 estimator the same source interval and the same number of scored observations.

343 The decision synthesis provides a relative summary of the four implementa-
344 tions. Accuracy combines baseline MAE, RMSE, and 95th-percentile error. Ro-
345 bustness assigns equal weight to eight evaluated disturbance families: random
346 sensor noise, current-gain error, additive sensor offsets, quantization, missing
347 samples, timing jitter, burst dropout, and voltage spikes. The current-gain and
348 current-offset components use the adverse direction from their matched signed
349 sweeps. Non-positive ΔMAE values contribute zero disturbance penalty. Levels
350 within a family are averaged before the family scores are combined, giving ev-
351 ery disturbance family equal influence. Recovery combines observed persistent
352 recovery-or-censor time, excess-error area, and persistent censored fraction from
353 the canonical paired initialization analysis. Relapse after a first qualifying entry
354 remains a separate diagnostic because it is defined only for runs that enter the
355 recovery band. Equal-scenario and high-severity weighting variants quantify the
356 sensitivity of the summary to alternative deployment priorities.

357 2.7. *HECM lookup-table sensitivity analysis*

358 The HECM is the only tested representative whose SOC calculation depends
359 directly on identified resistance, time-constant, and OCV lookup surfaces. Con-
360 sequently, an observed HECM disturbance penalty could originate from the
361 manipulated measurement, from local lookup-table calibration uncertainty, or
362 from an interaction between both. The sensitivity analysis tests whether the
363 HECM robustness profile remains stable when these lookup surfaces are varied
364 and whether the larger disturbance penalties can still be attributed primarily
365 to the disturbed measurements. This separates measurement robustness from
366 parameter-calibration sensitivity and is necessary for interpreting the HECM

367 benchmark results.

368 The nominal lookup surfaces are identified from the training and validation
369 data and remain fixed during the primary cross-model benchmark. For the
370 sensitivity test, the resistance surfaces and the time-constant surfaces are each
371 scaled independently by $\pm 10\%$, while the OCV surfaces are shifted by ± 10 mV.
372 Each one-at-a-time lookup perturbation is crossed with the complete set of mea-
373 surement and signal-integrity subcases, including the signed current-offset test,
374 and with the paired initialization-recovery experiment. Because these lookup
375 perturbations apply only to HECM, this analysis is evaluated separately and
376 does not enter the cross-model robustness score.

377 For every disturbance, the lookup interaction is calculated as the change in
378 scenario ΔMAE caused by the perturbed lookup relative to the corresponding
379 result with the nominal lookup. Results are first aggregated within cells and
380 then summarized with the same equal-weight cell bootstrap as the primary
381 benchmark. This design separates sensitivity to local HECM calibration changes
382 from sensitivity to the disturbed measurement itself. The complete numerical
383 protocol and the supporting figure are provided in Appendix Appendix B.

384 **3. Experimental Setup**

385 *3.1. Dataset and data acquisition*

386 The benchmark uses the MGFarm LFP 18650 dataset because its controlled
387 design-of-experiments aging study provides long 1-Hz full-cell trajectories, re-
388 peated capacity checkups, multiple operating conditions, and enough indepen-
389 dent cells for a cell-disjoint comparison [27, 28, 29]. The fixed split comprises
390 a six-cell training set, a three-cell validation set, and a six-cell independent
391 holdout test set. Figure A.25 shows the complete SOH trajectories together
392 with their charge-rate, discharge-rate, and depth-of-discharge aging conditions.
393 Table A.4 provides the exact cell-to-set assignment and reports the measured
394 duration, SOH, temperature, and load coverage. Figure A.21 summarizes the
395 diversity within the holdout test set. Together, these materials document the

cell-disjoint development boundary and the operating diversity of the evaluation data. LFP’s flat mid-SOC OCV and chemistry-specific aging behavior are integral to the tested problem.

The holdout test set is assigned to descriptive load groups using the measured 95th-percentile absolute C-rate. It contains two low-load cells, three middle-load cells, and one high-load cell. The single high-load trajectory is exploratory, whereas the low- and middle-load groups support multi-cell summaries. The exact assignment and the corresponding load coverage are shown in Figure A.21 and Table A.4. These cell-level load groups describe the operating coverage of the holdout set and are distinct from the multivariate selection of representative evaluation windows. The latter uses measured SOH, temperature, C-rate, charge-throughput, and SOC-coverage descriptors as detailed in Section 3.3. This separation preserves variation across cells and aging states without treating every operating-state bin as an independent statistical sample.

3.2. Dataset ground truth and preprocessing

The reference preprocessing first computes the signed transferred charge as $Q_k = I_k \Delta t_k / 3600$ and the absolute transferred charge as $|Q_k|$, from which the capacity during dedicated capacity-test intervals is obtained as $C_{\text{ref}} = \sum_k |Q_k|$. The reference SOH target is then defined offline as $\text{SOH}_{\text{ref}} = C_{\text{ref}} / C_{\text{ref},0}$, where $C_{\text{ref},0}$ denotes the first measured reference capacity of the trajectory, and the resulting capacity and SOH columns are interpolated between the dedicated capacity-test anchors. The dataset SOC ground truth used in the benchmark is reconstructed offline as $\text{SOC}_{\text{ref}} = 1 + Q_c / C_{\text{ref},0}$, where the cumulative charge state Q_c is propagated from the signed charge and reset to 0 at the upper voltage anchor and to $-C_{\text{ref},0}$ at the lower voltage anchor during preprocessing. This reconstructed SOC serves as the common dataset ground truth for every reported SOC error. It is an offline evaluation quantity because its dataset-side processing and anchor logic are not fully available to an online estimator during deployment. All nominal accuracy values therefore refer to this consistently applied dataset ground truth. Paired ΔMAE compares each disturbed run with

its matched baseline under the same ground truth.

3.3. Test trajectory and benchmark scenarios

All estimators are evaluated on every available cell/SOH combination in the holdout test set under the same disturbance protocol. One representative 24-h window is frozen for each available fresh, mid-life, and aged state, yielding 16 windows. One test trajectory remains entirely within the fresh SOH range and therefore contributes no mid-life or aged window, as shown in Figure A.21. Every candidate window begins at the same measured full-charge condition ($\text{SOC} \geq 0.98$, $U \geq 3.58$ V). Multiple eligible windows can nevertheless exist for one cell and SOH state, and their temperature, load, charge throughput, and SOC coverage can differ substantially. Each candidate window w is therefore represented by the measured operating-condition vector

$$\mathbf{z}_w = \left[\widetilde{\text{SOH}}_w \quad \bar{T}_w \quad P_{95}(T)_w \quad P_{95}(|C_{\text{rate}}|)_w \quad Q_{\text{through},w} \quad f_{\text{SOC} < 0.2,w} \right]^\top, \quad (9)$$

where the entries denote median SOH, mean temperature, 95th-percentile temperature, 95th-percentile absolute C-rate, absolute charge throughput, and the fraction of samples below 20% SOC. For every descriptor j , the candidate values are centered by their median m_j and scaled by their median absolute deviation s_j . The standard deviation is used when the median absolute deviation is zero, and an invariant descriptor receives unit scale. The selected observed window is

$$w^* = \arg \min_w \sqrt{\sum_j \left(\frac{z_{w,j} - m_j}{s_j} \right)^2}. \quad (10)$$

This measured-feature medoid criterion selects the actual window closest to the typical multivariate operating profile within each cell and SOH state. It avoids arbitrary or estimator-favorable window selection because neither model predictions nor errors enter the criterion. Applying the same procedure separately to every holdout cell and available aging state retains diversity across cells and SOH conditions while preventing unusual operating periods from dominating the comparison.

452 The one-hour dropout uses 48 h from the same full-charge anchor to retain
 453 approximately 24 h of post-gap observation. The shared SOH LSTM receives
 454 192 h of undisturbed causal context before every scored window, matching its
 455 trained sequence length. Figure A.23 summarizes the selection and evaluation
 456 protocol.

457 The benchmark contains 20 scenario definitions: the nominal baseline, two
 458 current-noise levels, voltage and temperature noise, three signed current-gain
 459 magnitudes, one signed additive current-offset level, voltage and temperature
 460 offsets, ADC quantization, initial SOC mismatch, periodic and random sample
 461 loss, three timing-jitter levels, a one-hour burst dropout, and randomized-sign
 462 voltage spikes. Each current-gain magnitude and the 50 mA current-offset case
 463 contain matched positive and negative sign sublevels. Adverse-direction sum-
 464 maries select the larger paired ΔMAE of the two signs within each cell be-
 465 fore equal-weight aggregation. Gaussian sensor-noise cases use 10 deterministic
 466 seeds. Random sample loss, jitter, and spike cases use 5 seeds. Determinis-
 467 tic cases run once. The complete traceable cross-model build comprises 7040
 468 model-window evaluations. Figure A.22 maps the scenario definitions to the ma-
 469 nipulated measurement or state and marks the selected paired reference-SOH
 470 ablations. Input disturbances act directly on measured channels, initialization
 471 interventions act on each estimator’s deployment-accessible state, and signal-
 472 integrity scenarios alter sample availability or timing while preserving causal
 473 execution.

474 3.4. Implementation details

475 Every estimator is executed causally, and all auxiliary quantities required
 476 by the models are rebuilt directly from disturbed inputs. This applies to Q_c ,
 477 EFC, dU/dt , dI/dt , and hourly SOH aggregates, ensuring that estimator inputs
 478 originate from the causal measurement path. The SOH LSTM forwards hidden
 479 and cell states across hourly updates after its 192-h initialization context. The
 480 primary SOC-GRU evaluation preserves its trained sequence-to-one semantics:
 481 each prediction uses the latest 2024-sample rolling window with recurrent state

482 reset between windows. The continuous-stateful stream forms a separate de-
 483 ployment configuration whose full-trajectory accuracy and resource demand are
 484 reported alongside the rolling implementation. In freeze and dropout scenar-
 485 ios, disturbed or frozen measurements propagate consistently into derived online
 486 features. The dropout start is selected from measured current as the eligible one-
 487 hour interval with the largest absolute integrated net charge. Selection enforces
 488 at least 12 h of pre-gap observations and 24 h of post-gap observations and re-
 489 mains independent of dataset SOC and estimator output. Direct-measurement
 490 estimators use the same CV-triggered reset that defines the full-charge start,
 491 whereas the DD initial-SOC test uses an equivalent offset of online Q_c because
 492 the network exposes no explicit SOC state. The environment enforces common
 493 nominal-capacity metadata, disturbed streams, targets, masks, and metrics.
 494 Model-specific capacity handling remains part of the estimator definitions.

495 4. Results

496 4.1. Baseline performance

497 Figure 4 summarizes nominal accuracy against the dataset ground truth
 498 across the 16 predefined windows on the common evaluation interval. Equal
 499 weighting within the six-cell holdout test set gives the lowest baseline MAE to
 500 DD at 0.0258 (95% CI 0.0189–0.0325), followed by HECM at 0.0337 (0.0246–
 501 0.0434), HDM at 0.0412 (0.0301–0.0515), and DM at 0.0690 (0.0499–0.0823).
 502 The RMSE ranking is identical, with values of 0.0300, 0.0388, 0.0442, and
 503 0.0740, respectively. Results at the cell and SOH-window level reveal substantial
 504 variation across the holdout trajectories, particularly for DM, and place the cell-
 505 macro means in the context of heterogeneous operating and aging conditions.
 506 The agreement between MAE and RMSE establishes a consistent observed cell-
 507 macro ranking within the tested data. All six pairwise mean differences follow
 508 the same ranking direction, and five of the six paired 95% confidence inter-
 509 vals exclude zero. The effect magnitudes and uncertainty intervals therefore
 510 provide quantitative evidence of practical separation between the tested im-

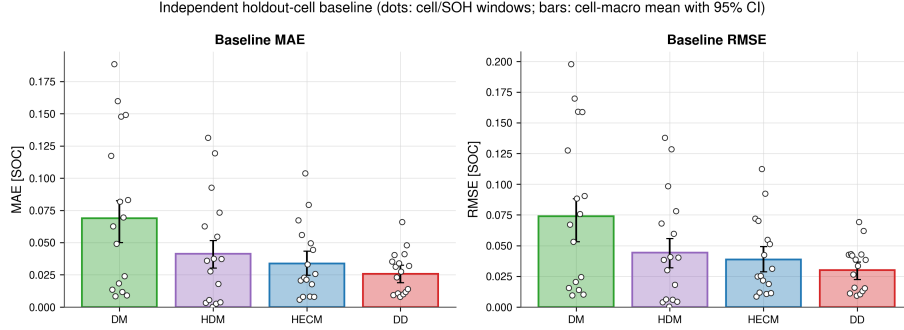


Figure 4: Baseline accuracy against the dataset SOC ground truth across the independent holdout test set. Dots show cell/SOH-window values. Bars and error bars show the equal-weight cell-macro mean and hierarchical 95% confidence interval. DD has the lowest macro MAE and RMSE, while DM has the largest error and between-cell spread.

plementations. Exact sign-flip tests add a complementary check of directional consistency at cell level. With six independent cells, their Holm-adjusted p -values remain above 0.05 and are interpreted together with the effect magnitudes and confidence intervals rather than in isolation. Taken together, these statistics support a clear ranking for the tested implementations and operating envelope. The following scenarios complement this nominal comparison by revealing distinct strengths and weaknesses in robustness, recovery, and embedded deployment. All reported accuracy values refer to the consistently reconstructed dataset ground truth.

4.2. Current-gain sensitivity

Current-gain error is a systematic sensor error that persists over time and scales with the instantaneous current. It therefore differs both from additive offsets, which shift the measurement zero independently of signal magnitude, and from zero-mean random sensor noise. Figure 5 summarizes the matched signed current-gain sweep at $\pm 0.5\%$, $\pm 1.5\%$, and $\pm 3.0\%$. For each magnitude and holdout cell, the adverse-direction summary uses the larger MAE change from the two signs because one direction can partially compensate a pre-existing baseline error. The resulting degradation increases monotonically with gain-

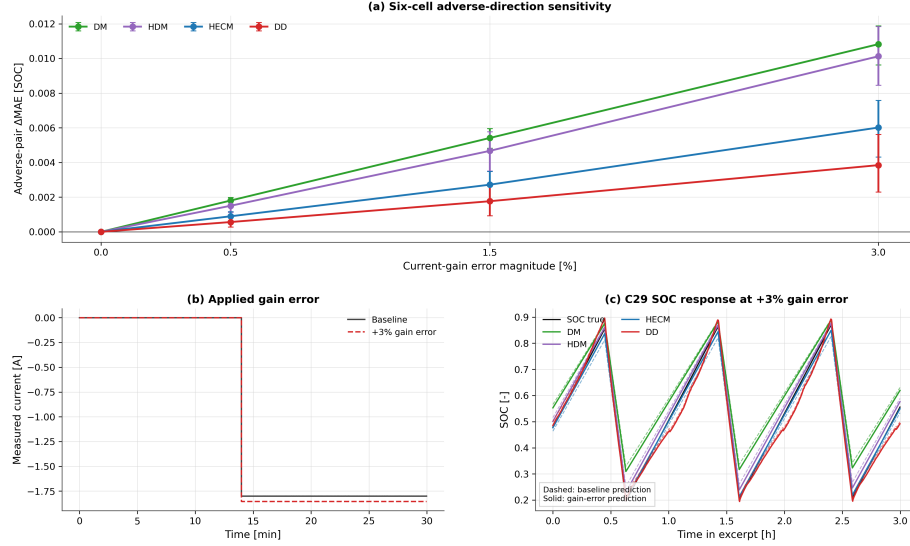


Figure 5: Current-gain sensitivity. (a) Six-cell adverse-direction ΔMAE for each matched $\pm g_I$ pair with hierarchical 95% confidence intervals. (b) Representative current before and after the +3% gain error. (c) SOC trajectories from the representative high-load test cell over three charge–discharge intervals. The test-set load assignment is documented in Figure A.21. The adverse-pair summary reports the larger penalty from each matched sign pair.

error magnitude for every estimator. DM and HDM show the strongest response, HECM is less sensitive, and DD is least sensitive. At 3%, the cell-macro MAE increases by 0.0108 for DM, 0.0101 for HDM, 0.0060 for HECM, and 0.0038 for DD. The complete signed sweep remains available for interpreting direction-specific behavior.

The continuous high-load test-set analysis in Figure 6 complements the window-based benchmark and separates three mechanisms that independent 24-h windows cannot resolve. The gain-error contribution varies over life because its signed Coulomb-counting error interacts with charge direction and operating state. Between full charges, the penalty often grows within an interval, but full-charge anchoring can partially reduce or restructure it. The process is therefore neither an unrestricted monotonic drift nor a complete reset. Across this single full-life replay, the adverse 3% gain error increases MAE by 0.0102 for

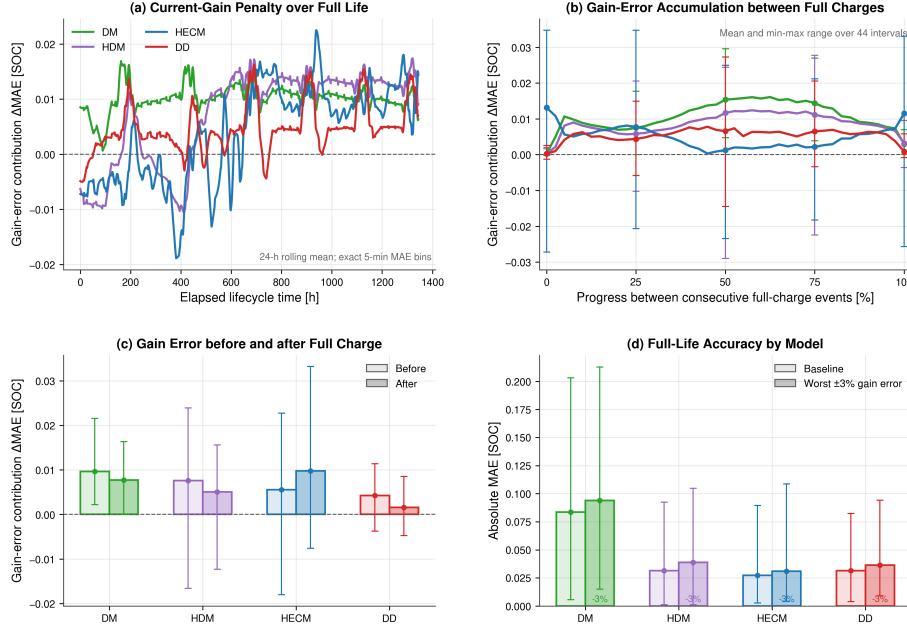


Figure 6: Current-gain-error diagnostic over the continuous high-load holdout trajectory. (a) Rolling 24-h gain-error contribution over elapsed life. (b) Mean and range over normalized intervals between consecutive full-charge events. (c) Penalty immediately before and after full-charge events. (d) Full-life baseline and adverse-gain MAE. Full-charge events reduce or restructure accumulated error but do not erase the lifetime penalty uniformly.

DM, 0.0072 for HDM, 0.0037 for HECM, and 0.0048 for DD. HECM therefore has the smallest full-life gain-error contribution in this trajectory, while DM and HDM remain most exposed. This mechanism-focused diagnostic is not a six-cell lifecycle ranking.

4.3. Additive sensor offsets

The signed current-offset experiment shifts the measured current by ± 0.05 A and selects the larger paired ΔMAE within each cell before equal-weight aggregation. DD has the smallest adverse cell-macro penalty at 0.0401 (95% CI 0.0226–0.0556), followed by HECM at 0.1763 (0.1329–0.2142), DM at 0.2467

551 (0.2253–0.2693), and HDM at 0.2727 (0.2546–0.2911). The adverse sign dif-
 552 fers across models and cells, which confirms that a single favorable sign would
 553 not represent offset sensitivity reliably. The large response of the integration-
 554 based implementations follows from accumulating a persistent zero-current error
 555 throughout the evaluation window, whereas the recurrent DD implementation
 556 limits but does not eliminate this systematic shift.

557 The fixed positive voltage and temperature offsets produce a different model
 558 pattern. A $+3^\circ\text{C}$ temperature offset increases DD MAE by 0.0074 (95% CI
 559 0.0027–0.0125), while the corresponding changes for DM, HDM, and HECM
 560 are 0.0000, 0.0002, and 0.0002. A $+0.02\text{ V}$ voltage offset increases DD by 0.0038
 561 and HDM by 0.0005, leaves DM effectively unchanged, and changes HECM by
 562 -0.0040 in these finite windows. The signed HECM result reflects compensation
 563 relative to its baseline trajectory. The additive current, voltage, and tempera-
 564 ture offsets form one offset family in the robustness synthesis, with the signed
 565 current case represented by its adverse paired result.

566 4.4. Noise sensitivity

567 In contrast to the persistent gain and offset cases, the sensor-noise experi-
 568 ments represent random zero-mean fluctuations. They produce smaller global
 569 penalties than the systematic current errors, with a response that depends on
 570 the disturbed channel and estimator structure. At $\sigma_I = 0.10\text{ A}$, HECM has the
 571 largest mean macro penalty ($\Delta\text{MAE} = 0.0038$), although its interval spans zero.
 572 DM changes by -0.0009 , while HDM and DD remain near zero. These small
 573 signed changes arise from finite-window compensation around imperfect base-
 574 line trajectories. Voltage noise ($\sigma_U = 0.01\text{ V}$) produces a 0.0014 penalty for DM
 575 and 0.0013 for HDM, while HECM and DD remain below 0.0003. Temperature
 576 noise is neutral for DM and small for the SOH-aware models. Figure 7 shows
 577 the local transmission of current noise, while Figure 8 reports repeated six-cell
 578 effects with hierarchical uncertainty.

579 Taken together, the repeated six-cell results show that zero-mean sensor
 580 noise causes only small changes in window-wide accuracy for most model–

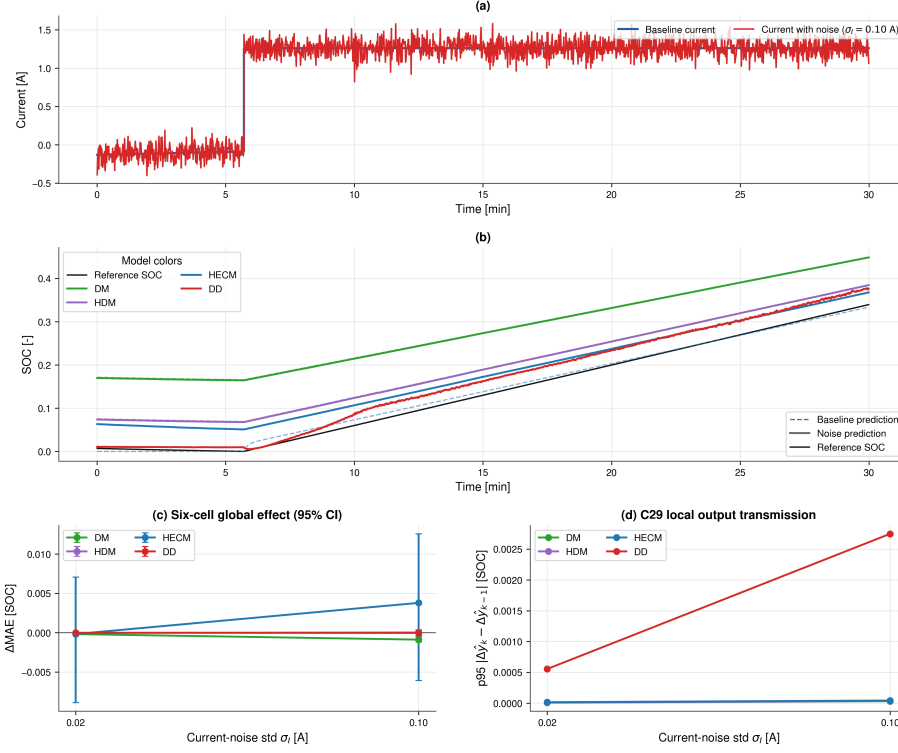


Figure 7: Noise sensitivity under additive current noise. (a) Baseline and noisy current in a reset-free 30 min example from the high-load test cell. (b) Matched baseline and noisy SOC trajectories in the same window. (c) Cell-macro ΔMAE with hierarchical 95% confidence intervals across the holdout test set. (d) Local transmission in the same example, measured as the 95th percentile of the change in noise-induced output deviation between consecutive samples. The local panels illustrate the mechanism, while panel (c) provides the test-set comparison.

channel combinations. The local current-noise analysis further demonstrates that window-wide ΔMAE should be interpreted together with short-term output transmission because temporal fluctuations may be only weakly represented by an aggregate error metric.

4.5. Initialization error and recovery

Initialization performance uses the paired criterion defined above. The protocol maps the same -0.10 SOC-equivalent mismatch to the explicit DM/HDM

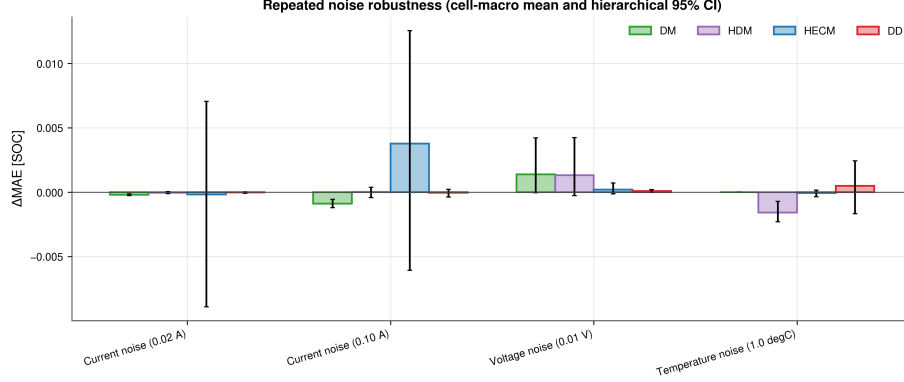


Figure 8: Repeated noise robustness across the six-cell holdout test set. Bars show cell-macro ΔMAE and error bars show hierarchical 95% confidence intervals with random seeds nested within cells. HECM is most affected by high current noise, while most other channel-model combinations remain close to baseline relative to the between-cell uncertainty.

588 Coulomb-counting state, the HECM EKF SOC state, and a Q_c offset of $-0.10C_{\text{nom}}$
589 for DD. Figure 9 reports the resulting paired trajectory differences from the
590 common evaluation start, while recovery time remains referenced to the inter-
591 vention. HECM provides the fastest persistent recovery, with a cell-macro mean
592 of 1.20 h, followed by DD at 2.60 h. DD enters the recovery band temporarily in
593 several runs but has a higher relapse fraction than HECM (0.78 compared with
594 0.17). DM and HDM generally do not recover persistently within the observa-
595 tion horizon, and both have a persistent-censor fraction of 0.89. HECM also
596 has the smallest excess-error area at 0.078 SOC h, compared with 0.116 SOC h
597 for DD. Together, the recovery time, relapse behavior, censoring, and excess-
598 error area identify HECM as the strongest recovery implementation under this
599 protocol.

600 4.6. Missing samples and signal integrity

601 Figure 10 compares the six-cell effects of periodic and random sample loss
602 with those of timing jitter. Sample loss is substantially more consequential
603 than timing jitter. Periodic freezing of every 50th sample increases MAE by
604 0.0072, 0.0065, 0.0028, and 0.0011 for DM, HDM, HECM, and DD, respectively.

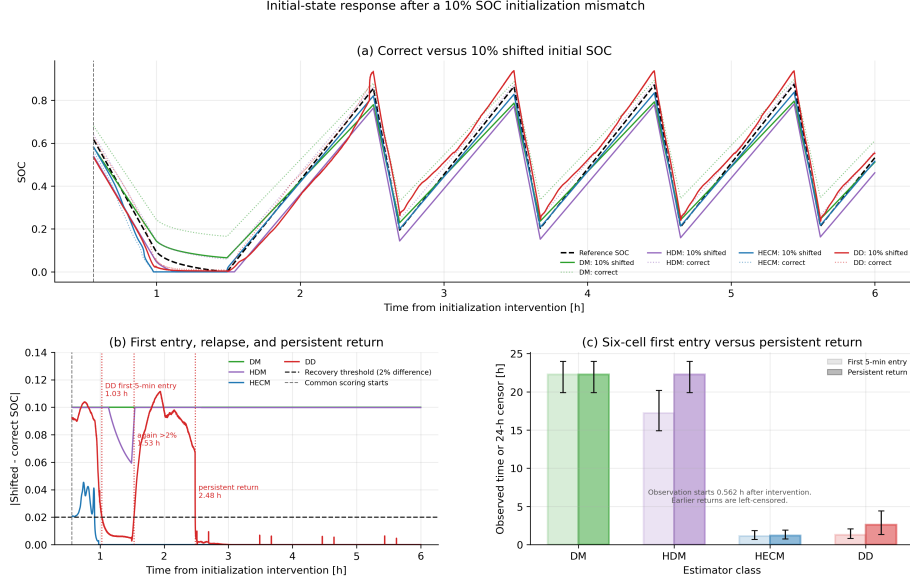


Figure 9: Response to a 10% SOC-equivalent initialization mismatch. (a) Correctly and incorrectly initialized trajectories for a representative mid-life pair from the high-load holdout trajectory. (b) Absolute paired differences over the first 6 h. The DD trajectory enters the 2% band for 5 min, leaves it again, and only later returns persistently. The vertical gray marker denotes the common evaluation start after all estimators provide valid output. (c) Observed first qualifying entry and persistent recovery-or-censor time across the holdout test set with hierarchical 95% confidence intervals. Endpoints already satisfied at the common start are left-censored.

Random 2% loss produces corresponding increases of 0.0080, 0.0081, 0.0039, and 0.0026. By contrast, even the ± 0.9 s jitter case remains within approximately 6×10^{-4} SOC of baseline for every model, with confidence intervals generally spanning zero. DD therefore has the smallest sample-loss penalty, while DM and HDM retain their structural dependence on uninterrupted charge integration.

The one-hour burst dropout creates a distinct availability problem. Against the duration-matched 48-h baseline, its macro Δ MAE is largest for HECM (0.0239, 95% CI 0.0155–0.0366), followed by HDM (0.0209, 0.0098–0.0313) and DM (0.0050, -0.0029 –0.0138). DD changes by -0.0093 (-0.0288 –0.0099), reflecting finite-window compensation between its baseline and frozen-input tra-

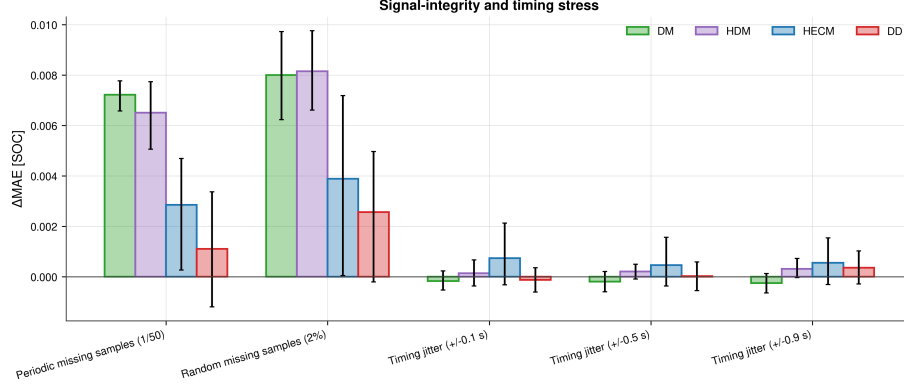


Figure 10: Six-cell signal-integrity and timing stress. Bars show cell-macro ΔMAE and hierarchical 95% confidence intervals for periodic and random sample loss and three timing-jitter levels. Sample loss clearly dominates timing jitter under the tested protocol.

jectories. The interval is placed where the absolute unobserved net charge is
 largest among starts that retain the required pre- and post-gap context. Figure
 11 compares the disturbed output of the representative high-load test cell
 with its duration-matched no-dropout trajectory and reports the global holdout-
 test effect. The paired local deviation has model-specific origins: DM/HDM
 retain the unobserved charge deficit until a physical anchor, HECM corrects
 through weak LFP voltage observability, and DD changes as its rolling input
 context is replaced by valid samples. Dropout contributes to the robustness
 dimension, while the recovery dimension uses the canonical paired initialization
 experiment.

4.7. Spike sensitivity

Single voltage spikes demonstrate why local and global metrics must be re-
 ported together. Full-window ΔMAE remains below 4×10^{-4} SOC for every
 estimator and is effectively zero for DM, HDM, and DD. Event-aligned analysis,
 however, identifies a reproducible DD transient: its mean spike-sample penalty
 across cells is approximately 7.7×10^{-3} SOC, compared with near-zero direct
 penalties for the other representatives. Figures 12 and 13 further show that the
 DD response varies across cells and SOH states and then decays after the event.

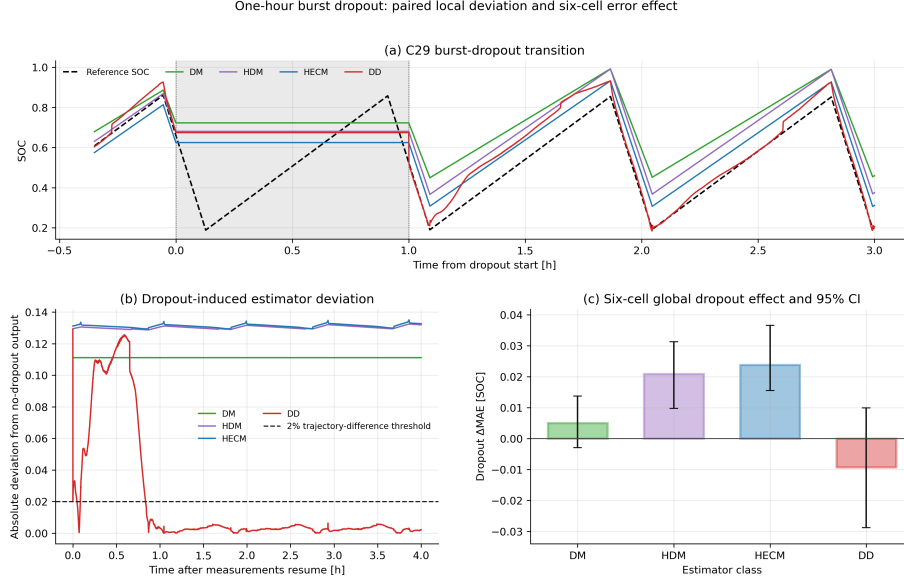


Figure 11: One-hour burst-dropout transition. (a) Estimator outputs around the shaded missing-input interval. (b) Absolute deviation from the paired duration-matched no-dropout output after measurements resume, with the 2% trajectory-difference line shown for context. (c) Six-cell global ΔMAE with hierarchical 95% confidence intervals.

633 This pattern is consistent with a one-sample voltage impulse entering both the
 634 absolute voltage and dU/dt channels and perturbing the rolling recurrent pre-
 635 diction. A channel-removal ablation would separate the individual contributions
 636 of the absolute and derivative inputs.

637 4.8. ADC quantization

638 Figure 14 compares representative raw and quantized current and voltage
 639 signals and summarizes the resulting six-cell ΔMAE . The tested ADC steps
 640 ($\Delta I = 0.01$ A, $\Delta U = 0.005$ V, and $\Delta T = 0.5$ °C) preserve the local signal shape
 641 but affect the tested representatives differently. DM and HDM increase by
 642 0.0038 and 0.0035 MAE, respectively. HECM changes by -0.0018 and DD by
 643 $+0.0002$. All four confidence intervals overlap zero. At the selected coarse reso-
 644 lution, quantization produces smaller penalties than current gain error, sample
 645 loss, and burst dropout, while the integration-based representatives retain a

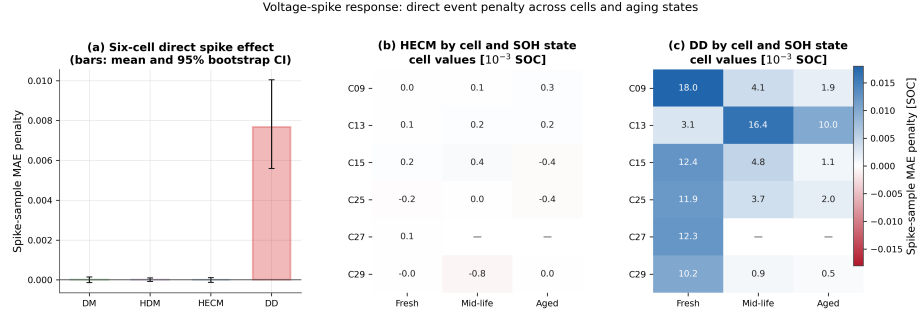


Figure 12: Voltage-spike sensitivity across six cells. (a) Mean event-sample MAE penalty with hierarchical 95% confidence intervals. (b,c) Cell- and SOH-state-resolved penalties for HECM and DD, respectively. Absent cell/state combinations are left blank. The event-aligned metric exposes the local DD response that is obscured in full-window Δ MAE.

measurable response.

4.9. Shared-SOH ablation

The primary comparison supplies one common causal LSTM-SOH trace to HDM, HECM, and DD. A paired ablation repeats selected scenarios with dataset reference SOH to isolate the influence of this shared service. Reference SOH reduces baseline MAE by 0.0370 for HDM and 0.0166 for HECM, while DD MAE increases by 0.0049 on average. The same direction persists for most noise, sample-loss, and dropout cases. At 3% current gain error, reference SOH improves HDM and HECM and changes DD by +0.0091. For temperature noise, the reference-minus-LSTM difference changes from its baseline value by 0.0016 for HDM and less than 10^{-4} for HECM and DD, indicating that the incremental temperature-noise response is largely independent of the shared SOH service. The reversed DD response reflects calibration and feature interaction with its SOH input. The primary LSTM-SOH results represent the complete causal estimator pipelines, while the reference-SOH runs explain how each SOC branch consumes health information.

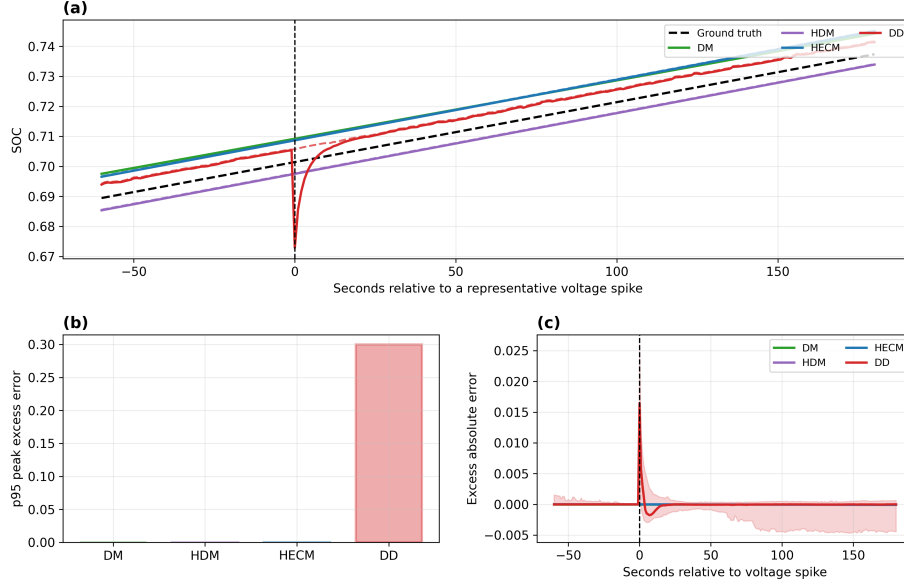


Figure 13: Event-aligned voltage-spike response. (a) Representative SOC trajectories around the injected spike, with the dashed black line showing dataset ground-truth SOC. (b) Model-wise 95th percentile peak excess error. (c) Mean excess absolute error aligned across repeated spikes, with the DD uncertainty envelope. The local response decays rapidly and is therefore weakly represented by full-window MAE.

4.10. HECM lookup-table sensitivity

Within the tested local perturbation range, lookup-table uncertainty is not the dominant source of the observed HECM measurement-disturbance penalties. Across all 22 measurement and signal-integrity subcases, the largest absolute lookup-disturbance interaction is 0.006116 MAE. It occurs within the additive current-offset test, but its cell-bootstrap interval includes zero. This interaction is small relative to the HECM current-offset penalty of 0.1763 MAE obtained with the nominal lookup. The large offset response is therefore attributable primarily to the systematic measurement error and not to the tested variations of the parameter surfaces.

The lookup tables nevertheless remain relevant to baseline calibration and recovery. Five of the six lookup perturbations retain mean persistent recovery-

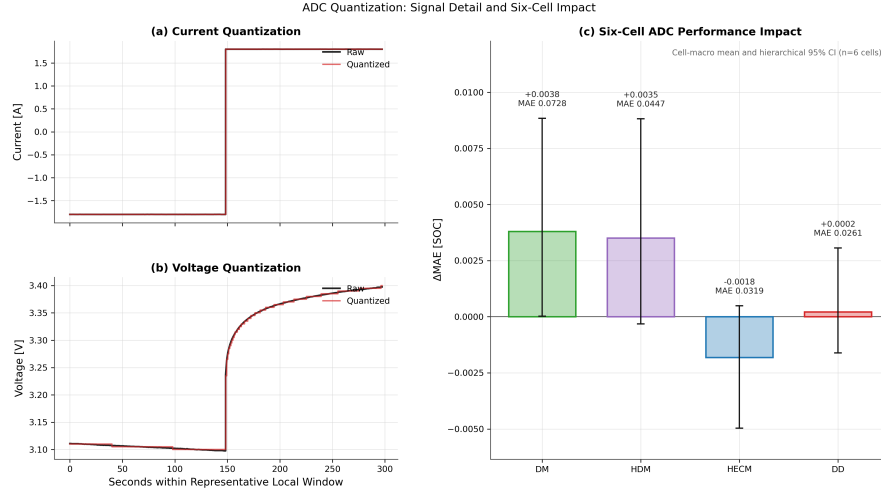


Figure 14: ADC quantization. (a,b) Representative raw and quantized current and voltage. (c) Six-cell Δ MAE with hierarchical 95% confidence intervals and resulting quantized-signal MAE annotations.

or-censor times between 1.18 and 1.41 h, close to the nominal value of 1.20 h. Under the remaining resistance perturbation, one low-load holdout cell stays outside the recovery band for the complete observation horizon and raises the equal-weight mean to 5.10 h. The analysis therefore answers the primary disturbance-attribution question negatively while identifying recovery as a separate calibration-sensitive boundary. Figure B.26 and Table B.5 provide the complete Appendix results.

4.11. Robustness synthesis across representatives

Figure 15 condenses 18 measurement-corruption and signal-integrity rows and shows how degraded-input behavior changes the nominal-accuracy picture. The additive current offset creates the largest global penalties for DM, HDM, and HECM, while DD remains less affected. Current-gain sensitivity increases with magnitude for every representative in the matched signed sweep. Periodic and random sample loss particularly affect DM and HDM, and the one-hour dropout produces the largest non-offset point penalty for HECM. Timing jitter

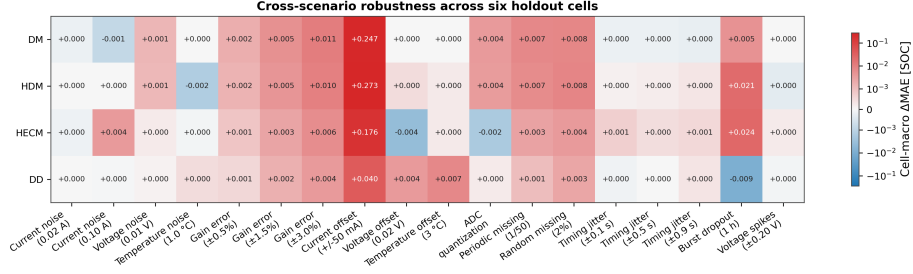


Figure 15: Cell-macro Δ MAE across 18 measurement-corruption and signal-integrity rows on the six-cell holdout test set. Current-gain and additive current-offset rows use adverse directions from matched signed sweeps. A symmetric logarithmic color scale retains visual resolution for smaller effects despite the larger current-offset penalties. Positive values denote degradation relative to each model’s paired baseline, while small negative values arise from finite-window signed compensation. The initialization-mismatch response is evaluated separately in Figure 9.

remains nearly neutral. Voltage spikes reveal a distinct DD transient through event alignment despite their small full-window MAE. Figure 16 complements this scenario-level comparison by combining relative accuracy, family-balanced robustness, and recovery and by showing how alternative priority profiles change the overall assessment. Together, both figures provide the evidence required for deployment-oriented estimator selection.

Under the family-balanced definition, the robustness scores are 0.452 for DM, 0.351 for HDM, 0.360 for HECM, and 0.967 for DD. Equal weighting per evaluated scenario yields 0.549, 0.476, 0.552, and 0.793, while the highest-level-plus-offset variant yields 0.573, 0.469, 0.562, and 0.693. DD leads all three aggregations. The changing score distances and the changing order of DM and HECM demonstrate the influence of the aggregation rule, while the scenario-level results identify the disturbance mechanisms behind these relative summaries.

4.12. Embedded performance benchmark

The STM32 experiment first verifies numerical equivalence before comparing speed or memory. Across the six nominal cell sequences, mean hardware–software MAE remains below 4×10^{-4} percentage points for every SOC core

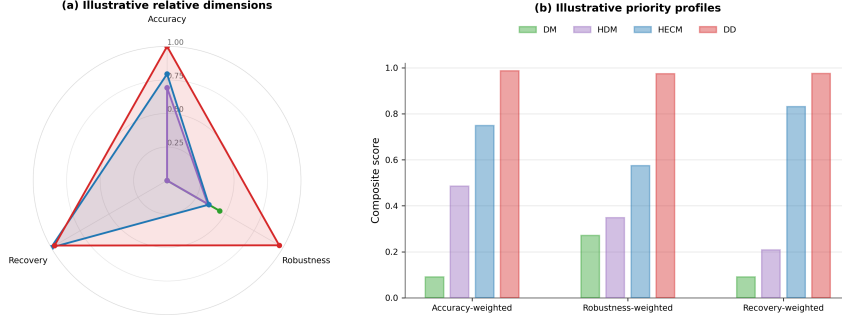


Figure 16: Decision-oriented synthesis for the four tested representatives. (a) Relative min-max-normalized accuracy, family-balanced robustness across eight evaluated disturbance families, and observed persistent paired recovery. Current gain and additive current offset use adverse directions from their matched signed sweeps. (b) Composite scores under three 60/20/20 priority profiles. The profiles are interpreted together with the scenario-level evidence in Figure 15.

(Figure 17). These differences are orders of magnitude below the estimator-to-dataset errors and show that the float32 C implementations reproduce their software references sufficiently closely for deployment measurements.

The isolated DM and HDM SOC updates both have sub-microsecond median latency (0.171 and 0.165 μs), HECM requires 23.9 μs , and continuous-state DD requires 424.9 μs (Figure 18). At the nominal 1-Hz update rate, these medians occupy less than 0.043% of one sampling period. This deadline share describes the isolated estimator task and provides the execution margin available for integration with other BMS functions. The DD value in the cross-model comparison is the continuous-state deployment variant. Exact 2024-sample rolling-window semantics are evaluated separately because they recompute the full sequence at every sample.

For the cross-model embedded performance comparison, DD denotes the continuous-state deployment variant used in the latency analysis. The compiled DM, HDM, HECM, and DD firmware occupies 27.0, 27.1, 470.1, and 115.9 KiB

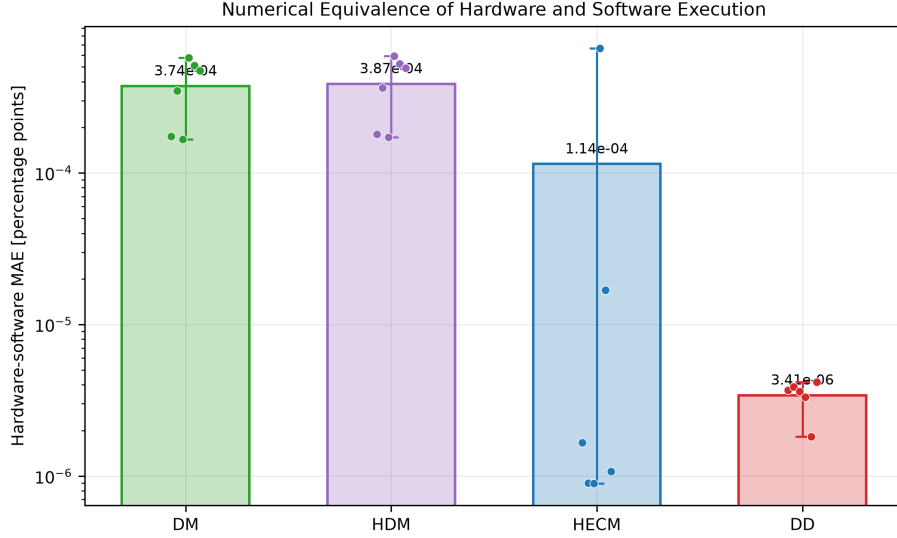


Figure 17: Numerical equivalence of STM32 and software execution over six cell sequences. Bars show mean hardware–software MAE in percentage points, dots show cells, and whiskers show the cell range. The logarithmic scale emphasizes that all implementation differences are negligible relative to model error.

of flash, respectively. The corresponding measured peak runtime RAM is 2.4, 2.4, 2.5, and 4.1 KiB (Figure 19). These peak values combine static storage, dynamic allocation, and call-stack demand. HECM flash occupancy is dominated by its parameter surfaces, whereas the DD parameter storage accounts for most of its flash demand. The measurements describe the isolated SOC firmware with the shared SOH trace provided externally and leave resource margin for additional BMS tasks.

Figure 20 makes the DD deployment trade-off explicit, while Figure A.24 provides the corresponding latency distributions over all six hardware cell sequences. Exact rolling-window inference preserves the trained software semantics but requires roughly 724 ms median inference time, or 72.4% of the one-second period, and 67.3 KiB peak runtime RAM. Continuous-state inference reduces latency to approximately 0.425 ms and peak RAM to 4.1 KiB while retaining similar error on the six nominal sequences. Periodically resetting that

On-Device Inference-Latency Distributions Across Six Cells

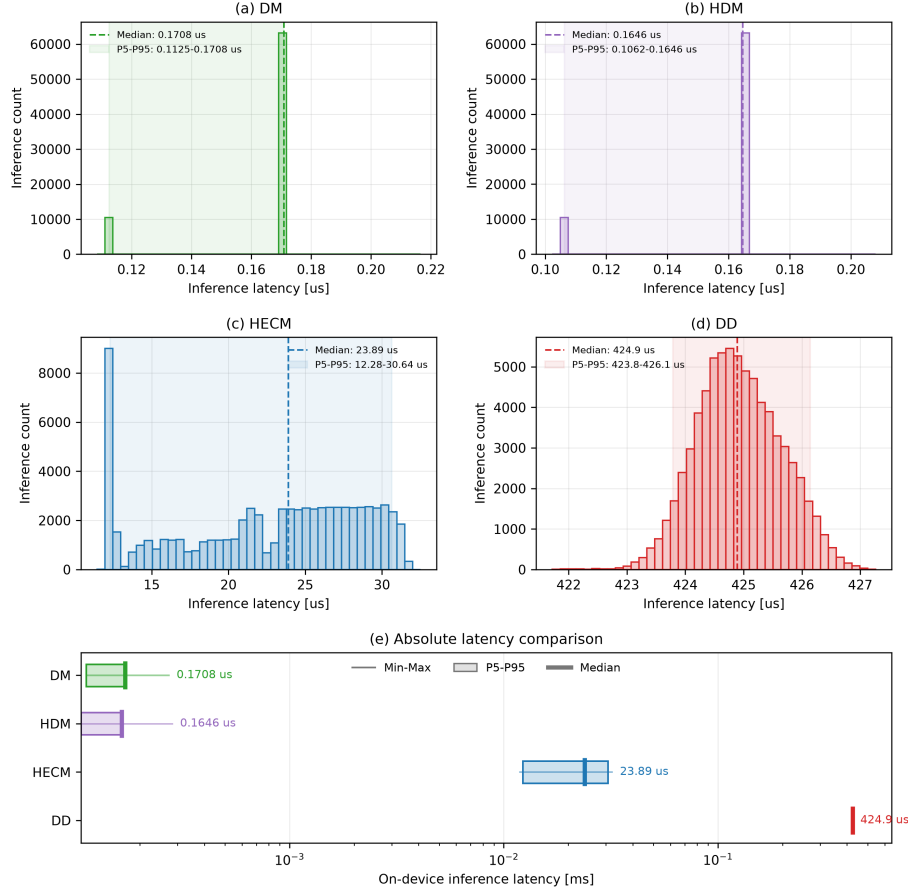


Figure 18: On-device SOC-core latency distributions across six cells and three replay rounds. Panels (a–d) show per-inference distributions. Panel (e) compares minimum, 5th percentile, median, 95th percentile, and maximum on a logarithmic scale. DD denotes continuous-state inference in this cross-model latency comparison.

735 state has a comparable 4.1 KiB peak but creates much larger transient errors,
 736 with a maximum SOC error near 28 percentage points. Continuous-state ex-
 737 ecution therefore provides the practical hardware configuration. Its forwarded
 738 recurrent state defines a deployment mode that is evaluated separately from the
 739 primary rolling-window benchmark.

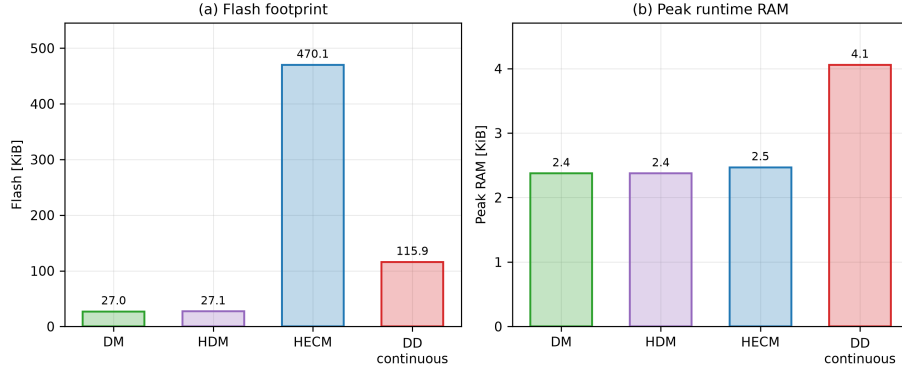


Figure 19: Embedded memory requirements of the isolated STM32 SOC implementations. (a) Compiled flash occupancy. (b) Peak runtime RAM measured during a representative holdout-test replay, combining statically allocated variable storage with maximum dynamic-memory allocation and call-stack use. DD denotes continuous-state execution, matching Figure 18. Exact rolling-window execution is compared separately in Figure 20.

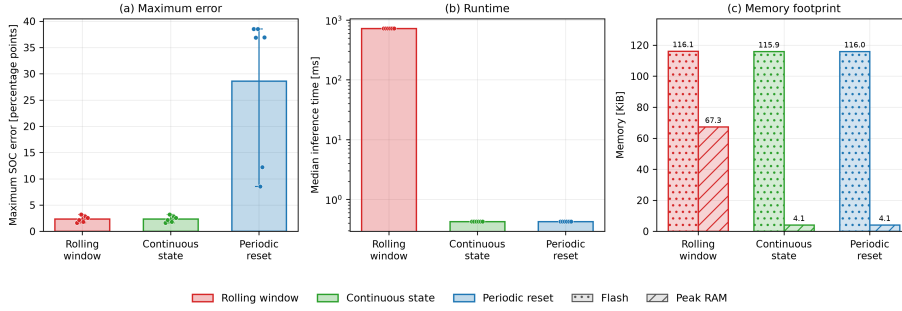


Figure 20: DD inference-mode trade-off on the STM32. The panels compare maximum dataset-SOC error, median latency, compiled flash occupancy, and measured peak runtime RAM for exact rolling-window, continuous-state, and periodically reset recurrent execution. Cell points show that periodic resets, not continuous forwarding, create the dominant accuracy loss.

740 5. Discussion

741 5.1. Structural interpretation across estimator classes

742 The four implementations expose distinct relationships between their update
 743 mechanisms and observed disturbance responses. DM has the largest nominal

error and reacts strongly to persistent current-gain and current-offset errors as well as missing samples because its current-integration structure lacks voltage-residual correction. Its practical full-charge anchor limits accumulated drift, while the lifecycle experiment shows that the reset restructures the gain-error contribution without removing it uniformly. HDM adapts the capacity denominator through learned SOH and thereby reduces capacity mismatch, yet it retains the same charge-integration core. Its similar response to systematic current errors, missing charge information, and ADC quantization follows directly from this shared structure.

HECM combines current-driven state propagation with a voltage residual and has the strongest observed recovery profile under the tested initialization mapping. Additive current offset produces its largest global disturbance penalty. Among the remaining cases, high current noise and burst dropout are most consequential because corrupted or frozen inputs affect both state propagation and observer correction. The confidence interval for high current noise includes zero and shows substantial between-cell uncertainty. The supplementary lookup analysis in Appendix Appendix B shows that the largest local lookup-disturbance interaction is 0.00612 MAE, compared with a 0.1763 HECM penalty from the adverse current offset itself. The disturbance response is therefore governed primarily by the corrupted input in this case, although absolute accuracy and observer re-anchoring remain dependent on lookup calibration.

DD has the lowest nominal cell-macro error and the smallest adverse penalties under both systematic current-error tests. It is also comparatively resilient to isolated sample loss. Event-aligned voltage spikes expose a recurrent transient that full-window MAE hides. The selected voltage and derivative features and the rolling recurrent context provide a plausible transmission path for this response and identify a concrete target for feature ablation and disturbance-aware training.

At class level, these representative results identify transferable mechanisms rather than a universal ranking. Direct-measurement methods provide transparent, deterministic updates with minimal resource demand, but their dependence

775 on integrated current makes calibration, uninterrupted sampling, and physical
 776 anchoring central to robustness. Adding learned capacity information creates a
 777 hybrid direct-measurement method that can reduce capacity mismatch without
 778 automatically removing the disturbance sensitivities of the underlying integra-
 779 tion core. Model-based ECM observers add physically interpretable voltage-
 780 feedback correction and recovery capability, while introducing dependence on
 781 model calibration, parameter storage, and operating-point validity. Data-driven
 782 sequence estimators can learn nonlinear temporal correction directly from multi-
 783 channel histories and therefore offer a broader route to combining accuracy and
 784 disturbance tolerance. Their practical behavior remains dependent on train-
 785 ing coverage, selected features, recurrent-state handling, and the disturbances
 786 represented during development.

787 *5.2. Limitations of nominal accuracy*

788 Nominal MAE describes average agreement with the dataset ground truth
 789 under clean inputs. The disturbance and recovery experiments add the DD
 790 voltage-spike transient, HECM re-anchoring behavior, shared-SOH feature cou-
 791 pling, and model-specific responses to random noise, systematic sensor errors,
 792 and missing information. Embedded measurements add latency, memory, and
 793 inference-state semantics. These dimensions create a deployment profile for each
 794 implementation, while the weighting analysis shows how application priorities
 795 reshape their combined scores. Estimator selection can therefore begin with
 796 the relevant fault and recovery requirements and then incorporate the available
 797 compute, memory, and state-service architecture.

798 *5.3. Implications for BMS deployment*

799 For BMS deployment, estimator classes should be selected according to
 800 the dominant sensing risks, recovery requirements, and hardware constraints.
 801 Direct-measurement methods are attractive when transparency, deterministic
 802 execution, and minimal memory are primary requirements, provided that cur-
 803 rent calibration, reliable sampling, and physical anchoring can be ensured. Hy-
 804 brid methods can add adaptive health information or learned correction to an

805 existing physical core. Their benefit and their remaining sensitivities depend on
806 which part of that core is modified. Model-based ECM observers provide feed-
807 back correction and stronger re-anchoring potential at the cost of parameteriza-
808 tion effort and larger storage requirements. Data-driven methods provide broad
809 flexibility for representing nonlinear dependencies and temporal context, but
810 require representative training data and explicit validation of feature-mediated
811 transients and recurrent-state behavior.

812 The STM32 results establish embedded feasibility for all examined represen-
813 tatives. All four isolated SOC cores meet the one-second deadline in the tested
814 replay. In particular, the compact data-driven representative demonstrates that
815 recurrent neural estimation can be practical on a microcontroller rather than be-
816 ing limited to offline execution. Continuous-state forwarding reduces its median
817 inference latency to approximately 0.425 ms with 4.1 KiB peak runtime RAM,
818 although this deployment mode must be distinguished from exact rolling-window
819 execution. The firmware measurements include flash, maximum call-stack use,
820 dynamic-memory demand, and numerical equivalence. Integration of the shared
821 SOH-LSTM, energy measurement, pack communication, and concurrent BMS
822 scheduling forms the next system-level validation stage. Table 3 relates the
823 measured estimator profiles to concrete deployment priorities.

824 Figure 16 complements the recommendation map by combining the mea-
825 sured accuracy, robustness, and recovery dimensions into relative priority pro-
826 files. The three profiles assign 60% to their named dimension and 20% to each
827 remaining dimension. Family-balanced, equal-scenario, and high-severity ag-
828 gregations produce different score distances and change the HDM-HECM or-
829 der. This sensitivity turns the score into a configurable decision aid, while the
830 scenario heatmap identifies the disturbance-specific strengths and weaknesses
831 behind each profile.

832 5.4. *Limitations and future extensions*

833 The conclusions are grounded in four specified implementations and the six-
834 cell holdout test set from one controlled LFP aging dataset. Alternative reset

Table 3: Decision-oriented recommendation map derived from the benchmark results. The table identifies the strongest observed representative under one dominant deployment priority and the stated protocol boundaries.

Primary deployment priority and selected representative	Main supporting benchmark evidence	Main trade-off to consider
Lowest nominal SOC error: DD	Lowest six-cell macro MAE (0.0258) and RMSE (0.0300)	Rolling-window execution is the most computationally expensive implementation
Strongest observed recovery from initialization mismatch: HECM	Lowest observed persistent-recovery-or-censor time and substantially fewer first-entry relapses than DD	Recovery is compared only after all estimators provide valid output
Lowest adverse systematic current-error penalties: DD	Matched signed tests give Δ MAE 0.0038 at 3% gain error and 0.0401 at 50 mA offset, below the other representatives	Temperature-offset and local voltage-spike sensitivity remain visible
Smallest observed periodic/random sample-loss penalty: DD	Δ MAE 0.0011/0.0026	The duration-matched dropout effect is non-positive but highly variable across cells
Lowest deterministic compute cost: DM/HDM	Sub-microsecond median SOC-core latency and approximately 27 KiB flash	Integration structure is sensitive to gain error and missing charge information
Practical fast neural deployment: DD continuous state	Approximately 0.425 ms median and 4.1 KiB peak runtime RAM	Different recurrent semantics from the primary rolling-window benchmark

835 logic, ECM structures, neural architectures, features, and training data can
836 produce different estimator profiles. The low- and middle-load strata contain
837 multiple cells, whereas the high-load stratum contains one exploratory trajec-
838 tory. One low-load test trajectory also provides no mid-life or aged window.
839 Figure A.21 makes these coverage limits explicit. The reported confidence in-
840 tervals therefore quantify the available between-cell variation within this design.
841 Transfer to other chemistries, cell formats, pack configurations, thermal envi-

ronments, and field duty cycles requires corresponding cell-disjoint validation. Nominal accuracy is referenced to one consistently reconstructed offline SOC ground truth based on Coulomb counting and voltage anchors.

The primary cross-model campaign concentrates on the BMS measurement chain, signal availability and timing, and deployment-accessible initialization states. The systematic current-error sweep covers matched signs at fixed gain and offset magnitudes, but not time-varying calibration drift or interacting sensor errors. The separate HECM lookup analysis crosses local resistance, time-constant, and OCV deviations with the complete set of tested disturbance sub-cases and paired initialization recovery. These one-at-a-time perturbations do not define probability distributions for lookup error and do not cover combined parameter deviations. Broader parameter mismatch, pack-level interactions, and supervisory BMS faults form a separate validation layer. The initialization experiment maps an SOC-equivalent offset into each estimator’s available state and compares recovery once all estimators provide valid output. The resulting times characterize operational re-anchoring under class-specific interventions rather than identical latent-state convergence. The continuous high-load hold-out replay complements the test-set windows with a mechanism-focused lifecycle view. The hourly SOH service represents gradual capacity fade, and channel-removal experiments would further isolate the DD voltage-spike transmission path. HECM uses HPPC-derived parameter surfaces identified from the model-development sets and held fixed throughout evaluation. The sensitivity analysis therefore characterizes local disturbance interactions around this calibrated implementation rather than arbitrary lookup-table error or every possible HECM design.

The hardware profile covers the isolated SOC firmware with SOH supplied as an external causal trace. Runtime RAM is measured during a representative holdout-test replay, including complete rolling-window DD inference. The next hardware stage combines the SOC and SOH services, measures energy demand, and evaluates estimator scheduling alongside communication and supervisory BMS tasks. Broader data campaigns can then extend the disturbance protocol

873 to interacting faults, additional operating environments, and pack-level closed-
874 loop behavior.

875 6. Conclusion

876 This study uses representative implementations from the direct-measurement,
877 hybrid, model-based, and data-driven SOC-estimation families to establish a
878 common robustness and embedded-performance benchmark. Each implementa-
879 tion was selected to expose a characteristic update or correction mechanism un-
880 der the same causal protocol. The resulting evidence connects these mechanisms
881 with the strengths and weaknesses that become relevant when an estimator is
882 transferred from nominal software evaluation to practical BMS operation.

883 For direct-measurement methods, the benchmark confirms the advantages of
884 transparent operation, deterministic execution, and very low resource demand.
885 It also shows why reliable current sensing, uninterrupted charge information,
886 and physical anchoring are central to this family. Hybridization can improve an
887 existing estimator by adding learned health information or adaptive correction,
888 but its effect depends on the part of the underlying method that is modified.
889 Capacity adaptation improves the treatment of ageing without automatically
890 removing the disturbance sensitivities of a current-integration core. Model-
891 based ECM observers add physically interpretable voltage-feedback correction
892 and strong re-anchoring capability. These benefits are accompanied by calibra-
893 tion effort, parameter storage, and dependence on the validity of the physical
894 model over the intended operating range.

895 The data-driven family shows particularly strong potential for future BMS
896 applications. The recurrent representative combines the lowest nominal error
897 with strong results across several disturbance families, which demonstrates the
898 value of learning nonlinear and temporal relationships from multichannel battery
899 data. The hardware benchmark also confirms that this capability is compati-
900 ble with embedded execution. All tested SOC cores meet the one-second sam-
901 pling deadline, and the continuous-state neural implementation achieves approx-

902 imately 0.425 ms median latency with 4.1 KiB peak runtime RAM. Compact
903 recurrent state estimation is therefore feasible on the selected microcontroller
904 and is not restricted to offline computation. Representative training coverage,
905 disturbance-aware evaluation, and careful handling of input features and recur-
906 rent state remain essential for exploiting this potential reliably.

907 The broader consequence for all estimator families is that nominal MAE
908 alone cannot establish suitability for BMS deployment. Accuracy must be evalu-
909 ated together with disturbance-specific robustness, recovery behavior, numerical
910 equivalence, inference latency, flash occupancy, and runtime RAM. This multidimensional benchmark does more than compare four implementations. It reveals
911 the mechanisms that determine class-specific behavior and provides a practical
912 basis for improving a selected approach through sensing design, physical-model
913 adaptation, disturbance-aware neural training, or embedded optimization. The
914 same framework can be extended to complete SOC–SOH execution, concurrent
915 BMS tasks, additional operating environments, and pack-level applications.

917 **Appendix A. Dataset Split, Holdout Coverage, and Evaluation Pro-**
918 **to**

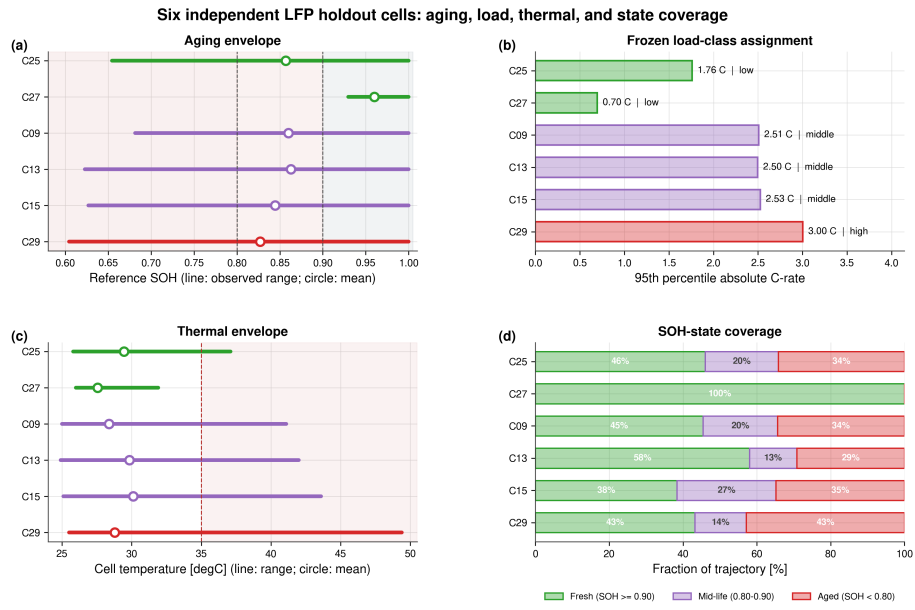


Figure A.21: Quantitative coverage of the six-cell independent holdout test set. Panels show observed SOH, the descriptive load-class assignment, thermal envelope, and full-trajectory SOH-state coverage. The high-load group contains one exploratory trajectory.

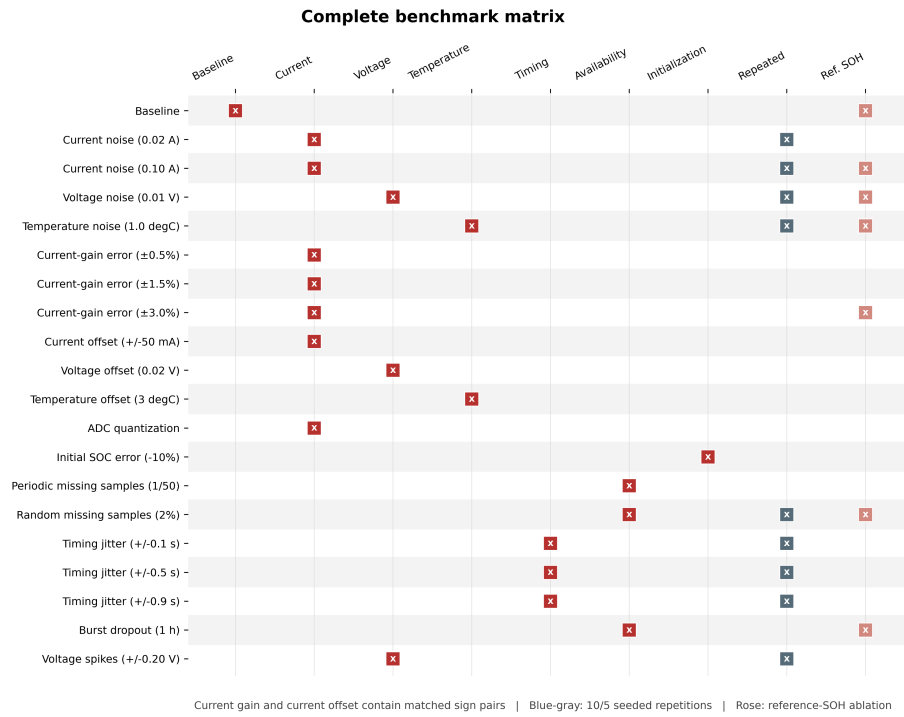


Figure A.22: Complete 20-scenario benchmark matrix. Red markers identify the manipulated measurement, timing, availability, or initialization channel. Blue-gray markers denote repeated stochastic cases. Rose markers identify paired reference-SOH ablations. Each current-gain magnitude and the additive current-offset case contain matched positive and negative sign sublevels.

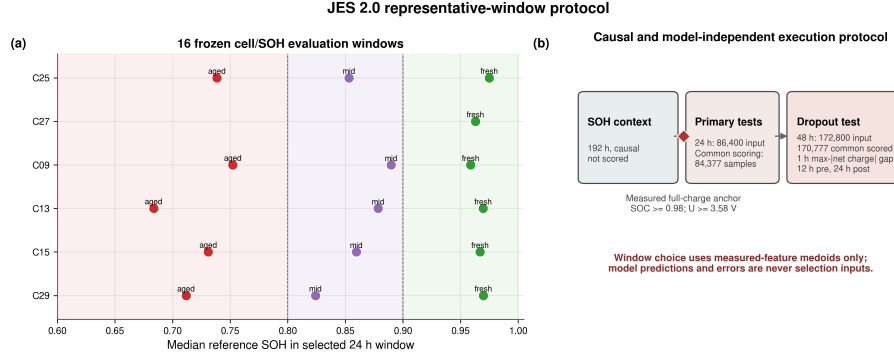


Figure A.23: Representative-window protocol. Sixteen cell/SOH windows are selected using measured-feature medoids. Every estimator is scored over the same interval once the rolling DD input context is complete. Standard windows cover 24 h after the causal SOH context, while the dropout case uses 48 h and places the one-hour gap at the eligible interval with maximum absolute net charge.

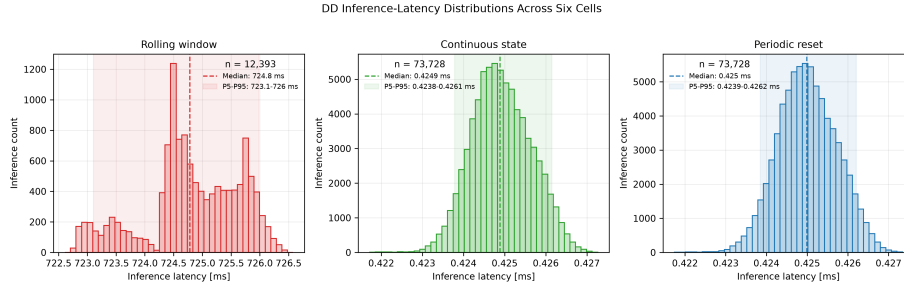


Figure A.24: DD latency distributions over the six hardware cell sequences. Exact rolling-window execution is shown separately from continuous-state and periodically reset execution because their scales and recurrent semantics differ substantially.

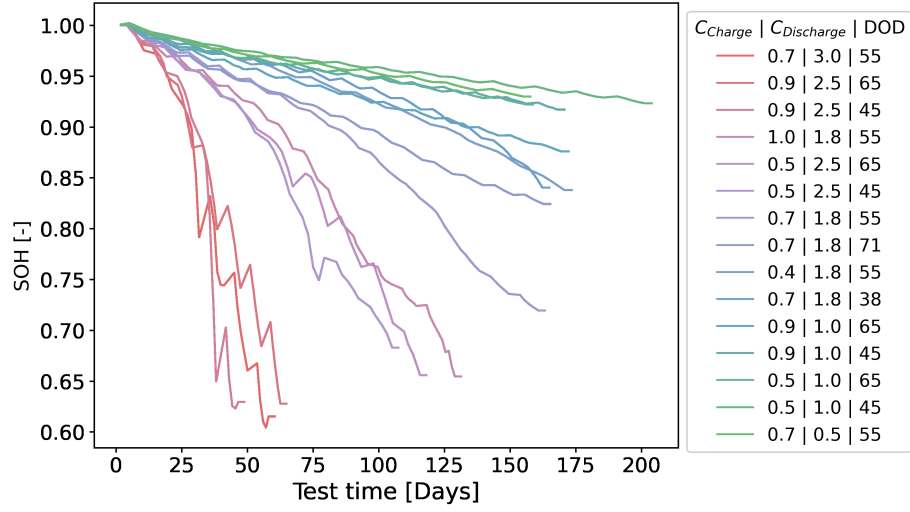


Figure A.25: Measured SOH trajectories across the complete LFP aging campaign. The campaign is divided into a six-cell training set, a three-cell validation set, and a six-cell independent holdout test set. The legend reports the applied charge C-rate, discharge C-rate, and depth of discharge for each trajectory. The plotted SOH values originate from repeated capacity checkups and are interpolated between checkup anchors. The exact cell-to-set assignment and measured coverage are reported in Table A.4.

Table A.4: Measured coverage and exact cell-to-set assignment for the fixed training, validation, and independent holdout test split. The 95th-percentile absolute C-rate is calculated over each complete 1-Hz trajectory. Load classes are defined only for the holdout test set. Its high-load class contains one cell and is exploratory.

Cell	Split	Duration [d]	SOH range	T range [°C]	P95 $ C_{\text{rate}} $	Test-set load
C01	Training	198.6	0.922–1.000	24.3–29.4	1.01	–
C03	Training	153.3	0.921–1.000	25.9–30.7	1.00	–
C05	Training	166.1	0.917–1.000	25.2–30.6	1.00	–
C11	Training	113.2	0.656–1.000	25.6–42.8	2.48	–
C17	Training	158.7	0.719–1.000	25.8–34.9	1.75	–
C23	Training	167.8	0.837–1.000	26.1–37.2	1.74	–
C07	Validation	167.6	0.874–1.000	25.2–32.0	1.01	–
C19	Validation	160.4	0.840–1.000	26.3–33.9	1.75	–
C21	Validation	160.8	0.824–1.000	26.2–37.6	1.75	–
C09	Test	102.6	0.682–1.000	25.0–41.1	2.51	Middle
C13	Test	44.7	0.623–1.000	24.9–42.0	2.50	Middle
C15	Test	60.7	0.627–1.000	25.1–43.6	2.53	Middle
C25	Test	127.1	0.655–1.000	25.8–37.1	1.76	Low
C27	Test	152.0	0.930–1.000	26.0–31.9	0.70	Low
C29	Test	56.0	0.604–1.000	25.5–49.4	3.00	High*

919 Appendix B. HECM Lookup-Table Sensitivity

920 The cross-model benchmark evaluates one fixed HECM implementation whose
921 lookup surfaces were identified exclusively from the training and validation data
922 and then held constant. This supplementary HECM-only analysis tests whether
923 its disturbance response depends strongly on local lookup calibration changes.
924 The R_i , R_1 , and R_2 surfaces are jointly scaled by -10% or $+10\%$. The τ_1 and
925 τ_2 surfaces are likewise jointly scaled by -10% or $+10\%$, and the OCV surfaces
926 are shifted by -10 mV or $+10$ mV. These six one-at-a-time perturbations and
927 the nominal lookup are evaluated across 22 measurement and signal-integrity
928 subcases plus the paired initialization intervention, all original seeds, and all 16
929 frozen windows. The additive current-offset extension uses the same ± 0.05 A
930 inputs as the cross-model benchmark. The combined design comprises 9184
931 HECM executions.

932 Main-campaign disturbances use their lookup-matched main baseline, the
933 one-hour dropout uses a lookup-matched 48-h baseline, and initialization re-
934 covery uses a separate paired lookup-matched baseline. For each disturbance,
935 the lookup interaction is defined as the scenario Δ MAE under the perturbed
936 lookup minus the corresponding Δ MAE under the nominal lookup. Results are
937 first averaged within cells and then aggregated using the same equal-weight cell
938 bootstrap as the primary benchmark. The analysis remains outside the cross-
939 model robustness score because it probes one model’s local parameter sensitivity
940 rather than a shared input disturbance.

941 The local lookup changes shift baseline HECM MAE from 0.0314 to 0.0373,
942 compared with 0.0337 for the nominal lookup. Across the 22 measurement and
943 signal-integrity subcases, the largest absolute interaction is 0.006116 MAE. It
944 occurs for the -0.05 A current offset under the $+10\%$ time-constant scaling,
945 and its cell-bootstrap interval includes zero. The interaction is small relative to
946 the nominal-lookup adverse current-offset penalty of 0.1763 MAE. The largest
947 current-gain interaction remains 0.000443 MAE. Several smaller interactions
948 have intervals that exclude zero, which identifies systematic local changes with-

949 out making the lookup calibration the dominant source of the observed distur-
 950 bance penalties.

951 Initialization recovery exposes a separate boundary. Five lookup perturba-
 952 tions retain mean persistent recovery-or-censor times between 1.18 and 1.41 h,
 953 close to the nominal 1.20 h. Scaling all resistance surfaces by -10% instead
 954 increases the equal-weight cell mean to 5.10 h because one low-load holdout cell
 955 remains outside the recovery band through the 24-h horizon. The other five cells
 956 do not become censored. The lookup analysis therefore supports local stability
 957 of most measurement-disturbance responses, but it does not establish lookup
 958 independence of absolute accuracy or observer re-anchoring.

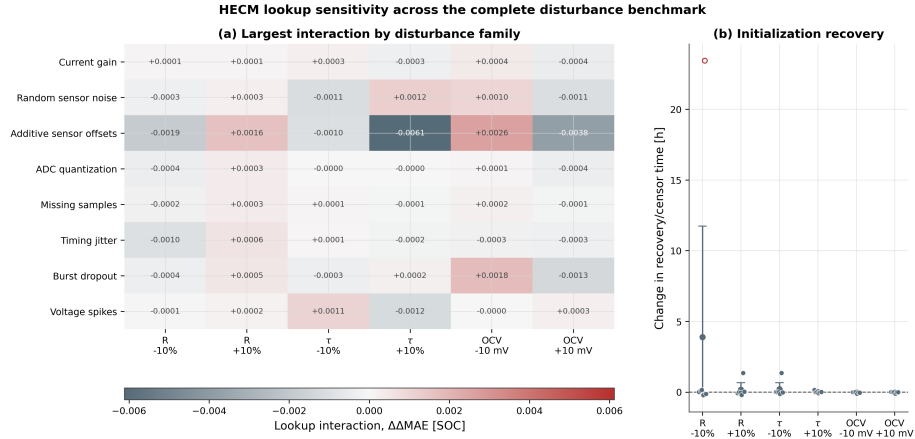


Figure B.26: HECM lookup sensitivity across the complete disturbance benchmark. Panel (a) reports the largest lookup interaction within each of the eight measurement and signal-integrity robustness families under local resistance, time-constant, and OCV perturbations. The additive-offset family includes current, voltage, and temperature offsets. Panel (b) reports the corresponding change in persistent initialization recovery-or-censor time. Points show equal-weight cell means. Open red points identify cell means containing a censored recovery window. Each run uses the appropriate lookup-matched main, dropout, or recovery baseline.

Table B.5: HECM lookup sensitivity across the complete disturbance benchmark. The largest robustness interaction is selected from 22 measurement and signal-integrity subcases after equal-weight cell aggregation. Bracketed counts report subcases whose 95% interaction interval excludes zero. Recovery is the persistent recovery-or-censor time from the paired initialization analysis, with the equal-weight censored-cell percentage in brackets.

Lookup condition	Baseline MAE	Max. robust $ \Delta\Delta\text{MAE} $ [CI]	Source subcase	Recovery/censor [h] [censored]
Nominal lookup	0.0337	Reference [-]	–	1.20 [0%]
Resistance -10%	0.0351	0.00191 [6/22]	Current offset +50 mA	5.10 [17%]
Resistance $+10\%$	0.0327	0.00162 [5/22]	Current offset +50 mA	1.38 [0%]
Time constants -10%	0.0343	0.00113 [6/22]	Current noise 0.10 A	1.41 [0%]
Time constants $+10\%$	0.0335	0.00612 [5/22]	Current offset –50 mA	1.22 [0%]
OCV -10 mV	0.0314	0.00260 [6/22]	Current offset +50 mA	1.18 [0%]
OCV $+10$ mV	0.0373	0.00378 [5/22]	Current offset +50 mA	1.19 [0%]

Table C.6: Six-cell baseline cell-macro statistics with hierarchical 95% confidence intervals.

Estimator	MAE [SOC]	RMSE [SOC]	P95 error [SOC]
DM	0.0690 [0.0499, 0.0823]	0.0740 [0.0532, 0.0881]	0.1088 [0.0768, 0.1307]
HDM	0.0412 [0.0301, 0.0515]	0.0442 [0.0319, 0.0557]	0.0649 [0.0449, 0.0846]
HECM	0.0337 [0.0246, 0.0434]	0.0388 [0.0286, 0.0493]	0.0644 [0.0468, 0.0821]
DD	0.0258 [0.0189, 0.0325]	0.0300 [0.0223, 0.0366]	0.0508 [0.0375, 0.0619]

Table C.7: Exact paired baseline-MAE comparisons across the six-cell holdout test set. Differences are defined as estimator B minus estimator A. Holm correction is applied across the six model-pair tests.

Estimator A	Estimator B	Mean difference [SOC]	95% CI	d_z	$p_{\text{exact}} / p_{\text{Holm}}$
DM	HDM	-0.0278 [-0.0381, -0.0171]	-1.93	0.0313 / 0.1875	
DM	HECM	-0.0352 [-0.0470, -0.0224]	-2.00	0.0313 / 0.1875	
DM	DD	-0.0431 [-0.0558, -0.0286]	-2.29	0.0313 / 0.1875	
HDM	HECM	-0.0075 [-0.0162, 0.0015]	-0.61	0.1563 / 0.1875	
HDM	DD	-0.0154 [-0.0243, -0.0084]	-1.39	0.0313 / 0.1875	
HECM	DD	-0.0079 [-0.0176, -0.0005]	-0.68	0.0938 / 0.1875	

Table C.8: Selected cell-macro scenario penalties relative to paired baseline. Current-gain and additive current-offset values use adverse directions from their matched signed sweeps.

Scenario	DM	HDM	HECM	DD
Current noise, $\sigma_I = 0.10$ A	-0.0009	+0.0000	+0.0038	-0.0000
Current gain, adverse 3%	+0.0108	+0.0101	+0.0060	+0.0038
Current offset, adverse 50 mA	+0.2467	+0.2727	+0.1763	+0.0401
Voltage offset, +0.02 V	+0.0000	+0.0005	-0.0040	+0.0038
Temperature offset, +3 °C	+0.0000	+0.0002	+0.0002	+0.0074
ADC quantization	+0.0038	+0.0035	-0.0018	+0.0002
Random missing samples, 2%	+0.0080	+0.0081	+0.0039	+0.0026
Timing jitter, ± 0.9 s	-0.0003	+0.0003	+0.0006	+0.0003
Burst dropout, 1 h	+0.0050	+0.0209	+0.0239	-0.0093
Voltage spikes, ± 0.20 V	+0.0000	-0.0003	+0.0002	-0.0001

Table C.9: Sensitivity of the illustrative normalized robustness score to the aggregation rule.

Estimator	Family balanced	Equal scenario	Highest level plus offsets
DM	0.452	0.549	0.573
HDM	0.351	0.476	0.469
HECM	0.360	0.552	0.562
DD	0.967	0.793	0.693

Table C.10: Canonical paired initialization recovery and target-hardware summary. Recovery values are equal-weight cell means over the common evaluation interval. Endpoints already satisfied when all estimators first provide valid output are recorded as conservative upper bounds.

Metric	DM	HDM	HECM	DD
First 300-s entry/censor time [h]	22.28	17.21	1.12	1.29
Persistent recovery/censor time [h]	22.28	22.28	1.20	2.60
Recovery excess-error AUC [SOC h]	1.735	1.738	0.078	0.116
First-entry censored fraction	0.89	0.67	0.00	0.00
Persistent-recovery censored fraction	0.89	0.89	0.00	0.00
Relapse fraction after first hold	0.00	0.22	0.17	0.78
Median SOC-core latency [μ s]	0.171	0.165	23.9	424.9 ^a
Flash [KiB]	27.0	27.1	470.1	115.9 ^a
Peak runtime RAM [KiB]	2.4	2.4	2.5	4.1 ^a

^aContinuous-state DD. Exact rolling-window execution requires approximately 724 ms and 67.3 KiB peak RAM.

960 **Funding**

961 Funding details are omitted for double-blind review.

962 **Acknowledgements**

963 Acknowledgements are omitted for double-blind review.

964 **CRedit authorship contribution statement**

965 The author contribution statement is provided in the non-blinded submission
966 materials.

967 **Declaration of competing interest**

968 The authors declare that they have no known competing financial interests or
969 personal relationships that could have appeared to influence the work reported
970 in this paper.

971 **Declaration of generative AI and AI-assisted technologies**
972 **in the manuscript preparation process**

973 During the preparation of this work the author(s) used ChatGPT, DeepL,
974 and Grammarly in order to improve the linguistic quality and style of the
975 manuscript. After using these tools, the author(s) reviewed and edited the
976 content as needed and take(s) full responsibility for the content of the published
977 article.

978 **Data availability**

979 The dataset is publicly available through its cited TU Berlin repository
980 record [28]. Code, model configurations, benchmark definitions, random seeds,
981 result summaries, hardware timing records, and analysis procedures are main-
982 tained in a public GitHub repository. The repository contains the neural model
983 assets and HECM parameterization used for the reported experiments.

984 References

- 985 [1] P. Shrivastava, P. A. Naidu, S. Sharma, B. K. Panigrahi, A. Garg, Re-
986 view on technological advancement of lithium-ion battery states estima-
987 tion methods for electric vehicle applications, *Journal of Energy Storage* 64
988 (2023) 107159. doi:10.1016/j.est.2023.107159.
- 989 [2] F. Guo, L. D. Couto, G. Mulder, K. Trad, G. Hu, O. Capron, K. Haghverdi,
990 A systematic review of electrochemical model-based lithium-ion battery
991 state estimation in battery management systems, *Journal of Energy Storage*
992 101 (2024) 113850. doi:10.1016/j.est.2024.113850.
- 993 [3] J. Yao, J. Kowal, Towards a smarter battery management system: A critical
994 review on deep learning-based state of charge estimation of lithium-ion
995 batteries, *Energy and AI* 21 (2025) 100585. doi:10.1016/j.egyai.2025.
996 100585.
- 997 [4] X. Li, J. Jiang, C. Zhang, L. Y. Wang, L. Zheng, Robustness of SOC
998 Estimation Algorithms for EV Lithium-Ion Batteries against Modeling Er-
999 rors and Measurement Noise, *Mathematical Problems in Engineering* 2015
1000 (2015) 1–14. doi:10.1155/2015/719490.
- 1001 [5] F. Naseri, C. Barbu, A. Jensen, P. Setoodeh, J. R. Baena, N. Hevele,
1002 E. Schaltz, Toward Reliable Wireless BMS: Robust Battery State Estima-
1003 tion Under Noise and Uncertainty, *IEEE Transactions on Vehicular Tech-*
1004 *nology* (2025) 1–12doi:10.1109/TVT.2025.3638613.
- 1005 [6] F. Berger, D. Joest, E. Barbers, K. Quade, Z. Wu, D. U. Sauer, P. Dechent,
1006 Benchmarking battery management system algorithms - Requirements,
1007 scenarios and validation for automotive applications, *eTransportation* 22
1008 (2024) 100355. doi:10.1016/j.etrans.2024.100355.
- 1009 [7] Z. A. Khan, P. Shrivastava, S. M. Amrr, S. Mekhilef, A. A. Algethami,
1010 M. Seyedmahmoudian, A. Stojcevski, A Comparative Study on Different

- 1011 Online State of Charge Estimation Algorithms for Lithium-Ion Batteries,
1012 Sustainability 14 (12) (2022) 7412. doi:10.3390/su14127412.
- 1013 [8] Y. Gao, G. L. Plett, G. Fan, X. Zhang, Enhanced state-of-charge estima-
1014 tion of LiFePO₄ batteries using an augmented physics-based model, Jour-
1015 nal of Power Sources 544 (2022) 231889. doi:10.1016/j.jpowsour.2022.
1016 231889.
- 1017 [9] Y. Gao, K. Liu, C. Zhu, X. Zhang, D. Zhang, Co-Estimation of State-of-
1018 Charge and State-of- Health for Lithium-Ion Batteries Using an Enhanced
1019 Electrochemical Model, IEEE Transactions on Industrial Electronics 69 (3)
1020 (2022) 2684–2696. doi:10.1109/TIE.2021.3066946.
- 1021 [10] J. Shen, W. Ma, J. Xiong, X. Shu, Y. Zhang, Z. Chen, Y. Liu, Alterna-
1022 tive combined co-estimation of state of charge and capacity for lithium-
1023 ion batteries in wide temperature scope, Energy 244 (2022) 123236. doi:
1024 10.1016/j.energy.2022.123236.
- 1025 [11] C. Wang, N. Cui, Z. Cui, H. Yuan, C. Zhang, Fusion estimation of lithium-
1026 ion battery state of charge and state of health considering the effect of
1027 temperature, Journal of Energy Storage 53 (2022) 105075. doi:10.1016/
1028 j.est.2022.105075.
- 1029 [12] P. Mondal, D. Bhavsar, K. Mittal, M. Mittal, Estimating State-of-Charge in
1030 Lithium-Ion Batteries Through Deep Learning Techniques: A Comparative
1031 Evaluation, IEEE Access 12 (2024) 78773–78786. doi:10.1109/ACCESS.
1032 2024.3408220.
- 1033 [13] D. P. Pau, A. Aniballi, Tiny Machine Learning Battery State-of-Charge
1034 Estimation Hardware Accelerated, Applied Sciences 14 (14) (2024) 6240.
1035 doi:10.3390/app14146240.
- 1036 [14] S. Giazitzis, M. Sakwa, S. Leva, E. Ogliari, S. Badha, F. Rosetti, A
1037 Case Study of a Tiny Machine Learning Application for Battery State-

- 1038 of-Charge Estimation, Electronics 13 (10) (2024) 1964. doi:10.3390/
1039 electronics13101964.
- 1040 [15] Y. Mazzi, H. Ben Sassi, A. Gaga, F. Errahimi, State of charge estima-
1041 tion of an electric vehicle's battery using tiny neural network embedded
1042 on small microcontroller units, International Journal of Energy Research
1043 46 (6) (2022) 8102–8119. doi:10.1002/er.7713.
- 1044 [16] M. A. Kamali, A. C. Caliwag, W. Lim, Novel SOH Estimation of Lithium-
1045 Ion Batteries for Real-Time Embedded Applications, IEEE Embedded Sys-
1046 tems Letters 13 (4) (2021) 206–209. doi:10.1109/LES.2021.3078443.
- 1047 [17] B. Gou, Y. Xu, X. Feng, An Ensemble Learning-Based Data-Driven
1048 Method for Online State-of-Health Estimation of Lithium-Ion Batteries,
1049 IEEE Transactions on Transportation Electrification 7 (2) (2021) 422–436.
1050 doi:10.1109/TTE.2020.3029295.
- 1051 [18] W. Li, N. Sengupta, P. Dechent, D. Howey, A. Annaswamy, D. U. Sauer,
1052 Online capacity estimation of lithium-ion batteries with deep long short-
1053 term memory networks, Journal of Power Sources 482 (2021) 228863. doi:
1054 10.1016/j.jpowsour.2020.228863.
- 1055 [19] F. Rzepka, P. Hematty, M. Schmitz, J. Kowal, Neural Network Architecture
1056 for Determining the Aging of Stationary Storage Systems in Smart Grids,
1057 Energies 16 (17) (2023) 6103. doi:10.3390/en16176103.
- 1058 [20] BQ79616 16-Series Battery Monitor, Balancer, and Integrated Hardware
1059 Protector (2023).
- 1060 [21] Design Considerations of Current Sensing With BQ769x2 Family for Bat-
1061 tery Management System (2022).
- 1062 [22] TMCS1108 3% Functional Isolation Hall-Effect Current Sensor With ± 100 -
1063 V Working Voltage (2024).

- 1064 [23] TLE4972 high precision coreless current sensor for automotive applications
1065 (2023).
- 1066 [24] O. Aiello, Electromagnetic Susceptibility of Battery Management Systems'
1067 ICs for Electric Vehicles: Experimental Study, *Electronics* 9 (3) (2020) 510.
1068 doi:10.3390/electronics9030510.
- 1069 [25] M. Liu, D. Geißler, S. Bian, B. Zhou, P. Lukowicz, Assessing the Impact of
1070 Sampling Irregularity in Time Series Data: Human Activity Recognition
1071 As A Case Study (Jan. 2025). arXiv:2501.15330, doi:10.48550/arXiv.
1072 2501.15330.
- 1073 [26] 10s battery pack monitoring, balancing, and comprehensive protection, 50-
1074 A discharge reference design (2024).
- 1075 [27] A. Aqachtoul, K. Karam, A. Elamrani, Y. Alidrissi, M. Najib, A. Rochd,
1076 M. Bakhouya, MGFARM: An IoT and Edge-Driven Framework for Smart
1077 and Sustainable Agricultural Practices, in: Y. Mejdoub, A. Elamri, M. Kar-
1078 douchi (Eds.), *Connected Objects, Artificial Intelligence, Telecommunica-*
1079 *tions and Electronics Engineering*, Vol. 1584, Springer Nature Switzerland,
1080 Cham, 2026, pp. 419–425. doi:10.1007/978-3-032-01536-5_64.
- 1081 [28] F. Rzepka, Design of Experiments for Cyclic Aging of LFP 18650 Cells: Im-
1082 pact of Charge/Discharge C-Rates, Depth of Discharge, and Temperature
1083 on Battery Degradation (Nov. 2025). doi:10.14279/DEPOSITONCE-24800.
- 1084 [29] K. Siebertz, D. Van Bebber, T. Hochkirchen, *Statistische Versuchspla-*
1085 *nung*, Springer Berlin Heidelberg, Berlin, Heidelberg, 2017. doi:10.1007/
1086 978-3-662-55743-3.